

COMPARATIVE OF EDUCATION Definition

Comparative Education has been defined in different ways by various authors. There has been no clearly accepted definition of Comparative Education. However, there has been one agreement among the scholars that Comparative Education is concerned with comparisons in education.

Comparative Education is an analytical survey of systems of education and problems with a view of establishing similarities and differences. It makes comparisons across geo-political, historical and cultural boundaries. The process of comparison involves analyzing forces which make for resemblances and differences between systems of education or problems of education.

Then looking at the reasons why different solutions have been attempted to problems in education that seem common to all. Lastly, finding out why these systems are the way they are.

Purpose of Studying Comparative Education

There are enough reasons why prospective teachers should study comparative education. These include:

1) For Intellectual Reasons

It is an intellectual activity that scholars can pursue to the highest trial possible. An individual can do this in order to enhance his/her intellectual capacity concerning other systems of education with the purpose of enlightenment. This knowledge would help the individual to understand their education system better and that of others with the intention of improving and solving problem in their own system. Knowledge for its own sake is the sole ground upon which Comparative Education need to make a stand in order to merit inclusion among other academic fields.

2) Planning

Modern societies have come to appreciate the importance of planning. Various problems that are associated with over-population, under production, diseases, economic non-viability, industrialization and social ills can be tackled through planning. Planning requires careful formulation of objectives, establishment of priorities and the identification of the means to achieve those objectives. Since an educational policy affects millions of people, rational decisions need to

be made so that the policy can achieve the desired results. This call for proper planning that Comparative Education can provide a helping hand.

3) Practicability

Education operates in a practical age trial it is now taken as any consumer good. The patterns of education that have no practical utility are being reformed. For instance, in United Kingdom the state supported primary schools whose objectives was to teach the masses how to read and write, so as to enable them work better in the industrial society. These systems have survived with modification and improvements. In the former USSR and China work experience was emphasized and was very much reflected in the curriculum. In United States of America, comprehensive schools on the principle of utility and practicability have replaced grammar schools. In Kenya the education system was reformed in 1985 with a view to make it more elitist and had no practical utility to the pupils involved. The problem of reforming an education system to make it more practical and of utility must be studied for solutions and this can be done better through the study of Comparative Education. 4) Humanitarian viewpoint

The current world is characterized by increasing problems that are affecting the human population in various ways. Most of the former stable regions of the world have been affected by wars. The problems experienced in these countries do affect their neighbours and other countries of the world in various ways. For instance, the gulf war of 1991 affected the world oil prices just as had happened in 1971 during the crisis in the Middle East. Since the Declaration of Human Rights by UN in 1948, there has been heightened aspiration for peace, freedom, equality, and a better life. As part of the human rights access to education has been increased. Many countries including Kenya provides Universal Primary Education. Therefore, the knowledge of each other education system is necessary and can better be acquired through Comparative Education.

5) Seeing Education in World Perspective

Most countries of the world have identical problems in their educational perspective. Therefore, it is possible for them to learn problems from each other on how they resolved a particular problem. For example, when Kenya was implementing FPE in 2003, Nigeria could have provided some of the clues of the problems, which were to be expected, and the solutions to them. Uganda a close neighbor to Kenya with practical solutions on how she managed to obtain total literacy while India has problems in achieving it. These countries can provide important lessons to Kenya during her implementation of FPE. Also, one would want to know how nations have struggled to establish media of instruction. The comparative approach would yield a deeper understanding of educational problems. In this era, the purpose of Comparative Education would be better understanding of the changed circumstances and to have better equipments to fulfill the new responsibilities. This will help in understanding of why some countries education systems are progressive while others are backward. The administrative system of the land influences the state of the educational system. For instance, the administrative machineries of Switzerland, Canada, USA, and Japan are combined with local autonomy and decentralized control.

Consequently, in the educational system of these countries, we find a reflection of their political philosophy. Thus the political philosophy and administrative systems of various countries determine the administration and control of education. 6) Promotes Innovation in Education

There are many innovations, which are being introduced in education today. The development of technology has facilitated new methods of organizing learning. For instance, the use of radio, Television and ICT to deliver knowledge, use of other aspects of the media, open university, African Virtual University (AVU) and computer assisted learning have been introduced to education. All these have facilitated education in a comparative context. The USA system has facilitated the spread of innovations in education in the world.

7) Economics of education

In the recent years, research has generated the realization that the spread of education is positively correlated with increasing productivity. For instance, the former USSR improved her economy by eradicating illiteracy. Also, all the developed countries have progressed by investing more in education. On the other hand most of the developing countries have generated the problem of educated unemployment or brain drain by improving their education systems. 8) Education for international understanding

This is a central purpose for studying comparative education. The two world wars made man to seek even more seriously the various ways of promoting international understanding. UNESCO has recognized that wars begin from the minds of men. Therefore in order to stop another war from occurring, international understanding is essential so that national pride can be curtailed in the people's minds. This was the spirit of the League of Nations in 1921; International Bureau of education in 1925 and Commission of Intellectual Cooperation in 1926. To deal with labour problems and education, International Labour Organization (ILO) and UNESCO were established. The declaration of human rights in 1948 by the United Nations Organization (UNO) as a way of enhancing peace has contributed to international understanding. Unilateral and multilateral cooperation programmes have been developed to promote international understanding. Education is seen as the possible way to enhance international understanding. To understand other nations of the world, their philosophies of life, education, culture and sociology and to understand the forces, be they geographical, cultural, local and religious influencing their life, to know more about their customs, traditions and culture is absolutely essential. An understanding of how these cultures are affecting education systems is important for the development of clear concept of internationalism. Exchanging of students teachers and other social workers is intended to promote the international systems of education.

9) Relax national pride

This is necessary for those countries that feel to be more superior to other countries in case of technology, military prowess and economic prosperity. They need to understand that other countries are essential for their sustenance and therefore have to work for mutual benefit of each other. Comparative thinking and international perspective taking are essential for citizens to get along in diverse, global society. Comparison challenges students to suspend judgment of these foreign systems that they might base on their limited and localized perspectives. Through the

development of comparative thinking skills, students should be able to undertake analyses of their home cultures and systems with a more nuanced understanding of various cultural factors at play.

METHODOLOGY IN COMPARATIVE EDUCATION Methods used to solve issues in Comparative education

The debate about methodology of comparative education has been stimulated from time to time by the need to produce valid answers and better understanding of the education systems, theory, practices and problems. One of the functions of comparative education is to help us in problem solving.

Just like other social sciences comparative education has been studied at different stages of its development with different methodologies. Beginning with simple narratives of education abroad during the travelers' tales phase, the disciplines methodological approaches have progressively evolved into the current application of sophisticated methods of the social sciences, which are empirically based. Due to its diverse clientele, arising from its multi- disciplinary nature, comparative education has failed to develop a single universally accepted methodology of study. As a result it is currently characterized by multiplicity of debates and opinion of what method is best suitable for use. The founders of the discipline Marc Antoinne, Jullein De Paris, suggested a method of studying comparative education and since then several comparativists have suggested alternative methods of studying comparative edcaution.

The debate about methodology of comparative education has been stimulated from time to time by the need to produce valid answers and better understanding of the education systems, theory, practices and problems. It became even more important after the World War II when comparative education became involved more in finding solution to educational problems of the contemporary era. In their efforts to advice nations, countries educational systems and institutions, have sought even more vigorous for the best method to use. The following are the methods that have been used in studying of comparative education and they tend to correspond with the particular stage of development of this discipline.

1. Traditional method
 - a) Descriptive method
 - b) Selective educational borrowing
2. Social science methodology
 - a) Historical approach
 - b) Philosophical approach
 - c) Sociological approach
3. Convectional methods
 - a) Systematic area study
 - b) Problem solving approach

Traditional Methods

a) Descriptive method

From the early times of the discipline development the most noticeable aspect was that of description only. This method had neither any methodology nor system nor details to the roots of the discipline. The method involved simple random surveys like those of Marco Polo, Hieun Tsang or Banche and had only some details of educational systems in other countries. Herodotus (484-425 BC) in his commentary on Persian wars, Xenophone (430-355 BC) in his details of training for citizenship in Persia, are some of the Greek interest in comparison. Plato (429-348 BC) in his Republic talks of improvement in society, Cicero (106-43 BC) in de Orator had compared Greek and Roman cultures and blamed Spartan training for encouraging homosexuality and robbery, Julius Ceaser had mentioned that Druids stressed memory and were not willing to commit their religious doctrines to writing. In these early descriptions, mostly the persons who traveled abroad were not basically interested in the educational systems of other lands for any utilitarian purpose but were curious to know the wide world and what people did there. These descriptions could not move beyond subjective interpretations.

b) Selective education borrowing

The method involves the comparison of descriptive data in form of legislative details, statistics and description which form the basis of comparison. Pioneers in the discipline used this method in the pioneer phase of comparative education.

Their main aim was to facilitate transplantation of education system and to promote understanding among nations through sharing of educational information among them. Their approach calls for the task of educational fact finding and enlightenment through abstracting educational statistics and presenting them in charts for comparison e.g. comparison of the organizations and methods of instructions. The approach requires giving details of other states and foreign systems of education. Some of the materials to be collected may be historical and descriptive.

Experiences may help in the investigation of educational practices in trial countries. Thus personal experience allied with social outlook would combine to give one a conclusion about an educational system. This approach involves looking what people in other countries are doing. If, what other people are doing in their countries were done in our country, on the same principle, then our education system would be better off. The approach involves stressing positive points of foreign education system so that current weakness of the system may be shown up. This is well illustrated by educational borrowing that took place in the early nineteenth century.

The beginning of 19th Century coincided with the rise of national system of education in Europe. Travelers abroad made journeys with a specialized interest in educational matters. No longer

motivated by general curiosity they went to foreign countries to discover information useful for charting the course of education in their countries.

This trial of persons of modern comparative education was predominantly educational politicians experts and activists. Often they traveled not at their own expense, or following their private interest, but as emissaries sometimes self appointed of their national Government. They concerned themselves with educational theory, methodology, finance and organizations, teacher training, institutional methods and alternatives to traditional accepted curricular matters of major importance for them. They borrowed what they viewed to be important in the improvement of education in their country and left out what they viewed to be of little use. This brought about selective education borrowing of aspects that would improve their education system.

Though trial reports now focused sharply upon the schools, characteristics associated with traveler's tales persisted; many of the reports took the form of encyclopedic descriptions of foreign system, perhaps enlightened here and there with anecdotes, but rarely explanatory. Of necessity objectivity and detachment were lacking. These educational emissaries committed as they were, to the cause of education in their own countries, they mostly saw and reported from abroad merely what they judged would advance their domestic enterprises at home.

Characteristics of this approach

It is mainly descriptive, eulogistic and governed by utilitarian purpose of assisting national development of education based on certain values governing the improvement of education. Conscientious comparison which may be expressed in definite terms acknowledging national differences was lacking.

Application

- i. Government may invite foreign experts to advice on the reform of an institution/education system. Kenya Mackay report of 1982, Bessey report of 1972.
- ii. Government may ask an individual in the country to set up a commission/panel to look into the reform aspect in the education. Members of the commission would study what happens elsewhere; select those features they think may help in the reform. They would put forward suggestion for reform and plan development for the institution and system of education. For example, the Koech, Ominde, and Gachathi commissions.
- iii. Government may send officials to another country to trial a particular kind of institution with the objective of setting up a similar kind of institution. The government may want to transplant aspects of education from a specific country for example institutes of technology, village polytechnics from Russia, China, and Japan.
- iv. A specialist in a country may be given the task of collecting information on foreign improvement in education. For example use a member in the ministry to collect information and stock it locally for use. He would send questionnaires and circulars to embassies asking for information about various aspects of existing systems of education which may be useful in school reorganization at home.

- v. Government may send individuals to study the work of an expert or specific institution where the expert works. For example to study the aspect of early childhood education, adult education.

Problems of the approach

- i. Problem of the reliability of the data collected especially inaccuracy of local records and imprecision of the technical term when translated to other national context.
- ii. The data need to be evaluated on the basis of each country for example the amount of money used in a country cannot be used to compare different countries due to the factors involved e.g. high population
- iii. Valuable comparison of education has to consider social influences on the policy and its consequence.
- iv. Political rivalry and economic competition among nations encourage imitations but national sentiments discourage it. For example the issue of 8-4-4 system of education in Kenya was faced with the problem of education specialist arguing against its implementation while politicians supported it.

Social Science Methodology

Under this approach several methods linked to the various social science disciplines have been brought forth. The development of social and behavioral science vastly expanded options for carrying out educational research. Various scholars from different disciplines have argued in favour of their area of specialization being used in comparative education. The vast methods available were found applicable to the study of comparative education. The result of this linkage to social science meant that trends in parents discipline shaped comparative education. The following are the methods that fall under this approach:

a) Historical Method

This method involves the search for cause and effects. It pursues antecedent causes of educational policy. In the use of this method it is assumed that the practice, device, methods, organizations all details which go to make up an educational system cannot be transferred intact from one environment to another. The educational practices are to be adopted and not assimilated. To adopt a practice requires that there be an understanding of the cause of its existence. The pursuit of historical approach motivates the desire to discover universal causes of education practice and to establish laws of education and science of education. In the historical method we try to understand all those geographical, social, racial, political, religious and linguistic factors, which influence the educational systems of a country. In the 20th Century, the historical approach was proposed by people like Isaac Kandel, who argued that the objectives of comparative approach to problems in education is in the

analysis of the causes which have produced them and the underlying reasons across various education systems.

The causes were to be found in the forces and attitudes governing social organizations and economic and political conditions that determined its development. Nicholas Hans has added religious, linguistic, geographical, racial and political factors to historical causes. Friedrich Schneder included the nation character, culture, foreign influences and development of pedagogy itself. Horace Mann tried to reconcile those who advocated the historical approach only with those who included other factors. He emphasized that the past could not be changed and the future held infinite possibilities. The future was then the field of action, the past is only valuable as a furnishing light by which that field can be more successfully entered and cultivated.

Assumptions of the approach The approach assumes that:

Education practices devices methods, structures and organization are not transferable intact to different education environments adaptation is vital.

Education problems are generally universal but their nature is usually particular to a situation. That is an effort to make comparison between countries. Stress must be on certain factors like political, social and cultural that shapes the character of educational systems.

Thus, as Michael Saddler emphasized, 'things outside the school are even more important in determining the theory and practice in an education system'. This approach analyses the cause of similarities and divergences and is expected to expose the necessity of understanding the forces that influence any education system.

Shortcomings of historical method

- i. One of the greatest limitations of the historical method is that the data on which we base our study may not be reliable because in the collection of data, due care is not observed. Therefore the conclusions derived cannot be very useful.
- ii. The historical materials about educational systems of various countries are generally not reliable. This limits the utility of the historical data. Hence more research is needed for making them reliable.
- iii. Another difficulty with the historical method is that historians generally are not impartial in their accounts. They want to conceal undesirable elements about the history of their own country and look on facts relating to other countries with prejudice. Thus the truth is not known and we cannot reach the right conclusions.
- iv. Lastly, in the historical method, the past is unduly emphasized. Thus the study of comparative education becomes unbalanced.

Sociological approach

In the sociological method the educational problems are studied in a social context. This is done with the belief that the educational system of a country is conditioned by its social, cultural,

economic, political and religious situations. Hence the educational problems of a country have their origin in some social problems and they do not exist by themselves, as there is a close relationship between education and society. The sociological methods of the study of comparative education does not emphasize only the past causative factors, but also those social and cultural aspects which may be responsible for the problem.

Assumptions of the approach

Society is considered as a fit subject for speculation and enquiry. Enquiry into the nature of human knowledge, the nature of human science and the question whether laws and principles underlie the growth and development of society are important.

Comparative inquiry in education may exhibit the influence of the trend towards the study of society.

The development of a sociological viewpoint implies a degree of analysis rather more refined than mere cultural descriptions. It emphasizes the possibilities of prediction. Thus comparative education study will be a study of the dynamics of an educational system and of its relationship with other aspects of society.

Steps to follow

The following are the steps that could be followed when using sociological method of data collection:

- i. Identification and collecting things of practical value that can be learnt from the study of foreign systems of education
- ii. Analysis of the extent to which things outside the schools may influence the things inside the school, an analysis of how school teaching staff, or classes of pupils relate themselves to the system and how they may be inextricably connected with the life of the nation
- iii. Investigations of how comparative education studies, as an instrument of reform, may also be an agency for promoting international understanding. Since the collection of information of a comparative kind would make it necessary for teachers. For example, there should be a system of our own country, Kenya. This ought to give the clues to the most valuable lessons, which can be drawn from, the educational system of another country. We have to show concern for national background in our enquiries on education of the country studied. Lastly, there is need to be aware that educational reform and innovation would have wide social implications.
- iv. Look for the means of prediction, or theories, which would enable us to anticipate events. Prediction as a purpose implies a stress on sociological dimension in addition to the historical perspective of the pioneers.

Shortcoming of sociological method

The sociological method suffers from the limitation that it ignores the contributions of individuals towards the growth of education. We know that in each country there are some individuals who

have contributed immensely towards the growth of education in their countries. The main proponents of this approach are Michael Saddler, William Harris, HJ Noah, and MA Eckstein.

Philosophical Analysis

In using this technique, the main assumption is that a process of simplification would succeed in diminishing the number of diverse events to be considered.

Explanation of any education system is connected with the philosophy of that country. The national styles of philosophy or different styles of arguing for example America pragmatism or French nationalism can help in explaining the education system found in a particular country. Thus the establishment of a predominant mode of thought can be linked to every aspect of an educational organization of the culture and the methods of teaching employed.

In this approach we stress the need to collect reliable data on an international scale in order to facilitate comparison in education. We have to explore the possibilities of defining a number of national traditions stemming from each nation's philosophical orientation.

The meaningful comparison and even prediction is done as to what may happen in future, according to the national styles of thinking and hence, of doing things.

Thus in advocating the isolation of only one main element, the ideology, the philosophical analysis may give us a manageable scheme, allowing a clear relationship to be established, if this exists, between educational practice and national thought or style.

Conventional methods

They are contemporary attempts to systematize methodology in comparative education research.

These methods include:

- a) Systematic area study (George E. Beredy)
- b) Problem solving approach (Brian Holmes)

Systematic area study approach

The approach trial the following assumptions:

- i. We can use this approach to make analytical surveys of systems of education in various countries or communities.
- ii. The study of other education systems acts as a mirror for evaluation of one's education system
- iii. This study approach is multi-disciplinary in character. It assumed that we can rely on many fields of study for example sociology, history, economics, philosophy, geography, and politics. Some of the issues we deal with are so complex that they present methodological problems. Solutions to these problems are not possible without multidisciplinary cooperation – we need skills other than educational knowledge, to make sense out of the similarities and differences among education system.

Constituents of systematic areas study approach

The following are the steps that could be followed when using systematic area study approach: i.

- Description ii.
- Interpretation
- iii. Juxtaposition iv. Comparison
- v. Suggestions, generalization and conclusion

Description

Description starts with extensive reading. The resources may be primary, secondary or auxiliary. These sources will help to describe how things are. For example, the primary sources will include:

- i. Eye witness accounts ii. Reports and transcripts of proceedings iii. Written materials of various kinds
- iv. Visits to schools

While secondary sources will include published works such as textbooks on education dealing with the countries under study. On the other hand auxiliary sources will include materials or sources of information, which may not be talking about education directly. Going through them one is able to gain certain information about the education of people in those countries. They include novels, storybooks, magazines, and journal.

Interpretation

The second step is that of interpretation. In this step we explain why things are as they are i.e. explaining/interpreting the collected information. We give reasons/justifications for the presence/absence of certain features in educational systems studied. The reasons may be historical, geographical, socio-cultural, economic, and political. Other disciplinary areas are used to explain why an educational/ aspect is as it is.

Juxtaposition

The third step is that of juxtaposition. In this step the information is put into groups or categories according to those features, which can be, comparable and non- comparable features. In this way similarities and differences can be clearly seen. The use of charts, bar graphs and sketches can be used to illustrate the information required. For example the table below shows the structural duration of education system in the East African countries. From the table one can deduce the similarities and differences of the structural duration in each of the five countries. Various reasons such as economic and political stability can be used to explain the differences and the similarities prevalent in each country.

Level

Kenya

Uganda

Tanzania

Rwanda

Burundi

Primary

8

7

7

6

6

Secondary	Higher	Total
4	4	16
4 + 2	3	16
4+ 2	3	16
3 + 3	4	16
3 + 3	4	16

Comparison

We compare features in one system with those of other countries/institutions under study. We take note of the similarities and differences and reason why these are as they are.

Suggestions, generalizations and conclusion

On the basis of the findings in the foregoing steps we draw conclusions and put forward suggestions for new lines of action. These are based on factors behind the similarities and differences, which have been observed.

Problem Solving Approach

Brian Holmes envisioned the field of comparative education as eminently practical in nature, providing the basis for the solutions to educational problems. He spelt out a means of identifying a problem and its possible solutions and further suggested ways of predicting the greater likelihood of a particular reform bringing about a desired result. For the success of approach Holmes upheld the following assumption.

Assumptions

- i. It is possible to use stages of reflective (philosophical) thinking as put forward by John Dewey
- ii. That the functioning of reflective thinking is to clear up a confused situation i.e. to solve a problem.
- iii. That testing is possible that is making logical deduction from the hypotheses within the context of relevant factors and then comparing the predicted events with the actual events, which are observed to flow from a selected course of action.

- iv. That agreement between the predicted and observed events provides verification of the hypothesis that is an explanation of events constitutes a successful solution of the confused situation.
- v. That disagreement between the two trial of events (predicted and observed) constitutes a refutation of hypothesis.

Steps

1. Problem identification

Involves selection of vaguely perceived problem that catches our interest e.g. general dissatisfaction with an aspect of education for example poor examinations performance, students unrest, gender issues

2. Problem analysis

Intellectualize the vaguely perceived problem in general terms. A description of the conditions under which the problem is found should be given. Describe the trends that are related to vaguely perceived problem.

3. Proposed problem solutions

Describe the reform proposals and policies put forward as solutions to the problems. This will help by providing the suggested solutions to the problem.

4. Specification of the context

The fourth step will involve the identification and description of factors, determinants and conditions likely to influence outcomes of the proposed policy solutions. Trial are factors, conditions, determinants, which, in our opinion, may have been over- looked by those who proposed solutions to the vaguely perceived problem.

5. Comparison

Compare the predicted or anticipated functional activities (based on proposed policy solutions) with the actual observable practices. This is a verification stage. Have things worked out as anticipated by those proposed the solutions. Compare with what you find out in relation to step 3 and 4.

6. Conclusion

On the trial of the findings from the study, conclusions and predictions made. Suggestions are then made for new lines of actions.

Conclusion

Today, comparative education is further away from a single methodology. Definitions and new disputes concerning the scope and analytic categories of scholarship have emerged since the 1970s giving rise to a wide diversity of approaches, perspectives and orientations.

A number of factors have contributed to this:

- Failure of traditional ideas to explain educational development world wide
- Emergency of alternative ideologies, hence, the field still remains an ill- defined one. The research in the field has and will remain diverse, thus shifting the debate but perhaps not resolving issues and challenges concerning the theory and methodology in comparative education.

FACTORS INFLUENCING EDUCATION SYSTEMS IN THE WORLD

One of the purposes of comparative education is to develop general statements about the forces and factors that influence development of educational systems. There are certain similarities among the factors that determine and shape systems of education to be the way they are in the continents of the world. Europe for example suffered a major division based on polarized ideologies which involved eastern political ideology (communism socialism) different from that of the western (democratic). However, it has common Roman - Christian education and that both have contemporarily shared experience in industry and society.

Africa as a continent is characterized by common needs, associated with under development and a shared history of European colonization. North America shares a common heritage of democratic principles while South America shares cohesion linked to common cultural origins and similar kinds of social-economic development. Asia, however, has major cultural divisions especially those related to religious obligations and is also affected by different kinds of historical and external interventions. It has different levels of economic development with some countries very poor while others very rich.

The specific factors that determine and shape system of education to be the way they are include:

1. Economic factors

The level of economic development of a country, which is based on the level of industrialization, determines the decline or advancement of education. The indication depends on provision of education for all which entails free and compulsory or universal primary education. For example, industrialized and highly urbanized countries have high income. These countries include Japan, China, US, Britain, France, Australia, Italy and Germany. In these countries, universal free and compulsory elementary education has been achieved. Secondary education is also free in some of the countries. The newly industrialized countries have middle levels of income. These include Thailand, Singapore, Malaysia, Indonesia, Taiwan, and South Korea. Here universal primary education is nearly achieved. Even in those countries where is universal free and compulsory primary education, problems of non enrollment school dropout and low completion rates are inevitable. On the other hand, in those countries where this policy (compulsory primary education) has been achieved especially in developed countries, there are strict prohibitions of non-enrolments, school dropouts and low completion rates such that the parents of those pupils who do not enroll or drop out of school are charged accordingly in the court of law. As a result there are large numbers enrolled in primary schools as well as high completion rates.

2. Social Cultural factors

School systems reflect the social patterns prevailing in any particular country. Education reforms reflect changing needs of and aspirations of a dynamic society. For example, after independence most African countries had to Africanize their systems of education so as to meet needs of the African societies. Customs, traditions, beliefs, and local developments affect the education system in a country. All these factors affect the curriculum and influence educational development. Some schools of thought have divided these factors into three categories. Of them being those universal things which all the people in a country do the same way. These include speaking the same language, eating the same food, wearing the same clothes, and holding the same political and religious ideas. The second type of things are specialties of a nation or the people such as specialized vocational skills and training which make for division of labour in a society and the accepted ideas about class and social position within that culture. The third type of thing are the alternatives which are those things about which individuals exercise their own personal choice, such as making use of inventions and other new ways of doing things.

Another aspect here is language. This has implication on education in terms of medium of instruction. Depending on whether one or several languages are used in most of the communities it has implications on the cost of education system and national unity. For example, it is cheaper to train teachers with only one language as a medium of instruction compared to where more than one language is used. In Africa, it would be difficult and expensive because of the many different languages that exist and all are used as a medium of instruction. In case a country has one language or an accepted language without intricate dialect, the organization of education systems becomes quite simple as in the case of England and USA. In the countries where national unity is quite strong the system of education is not much affected even with two or three languages are spoken in that country as in Switzerland where three languages are spoken and also in Wales where two languages are spoken by Masses.

On the other Hand, countries like India where a good number of languages are spoken and written, the organization of the system of the system of schools becomes quite problematic. Similarly, in the case where different languages corresponds to difference between national and semi- hostile groups, educational systems also become problematic when a number of dialects are spoken and written by the Masses. It is also so, if the language is quite complicated as in China. It takes long to learn it for example in India there are fourteen main languages and hundreds of dialects and the incidence of illiteracy is quite high. The British were able to deal with the problem of language by using English as the main language of instruction. Even after independence, though efforts were being made to popularize Hindi as a link language, yet it is not accepted by a good number of people. Certain state languages such as Tamil, Bengali and Punjabi are so popular with their people that they are reluctant to accept Hindi as their first language. So much so that in certain areas English is preferred to Hindi. In Canada, the province of Quebec uses French while the other provinces use English as a medium of instruction. This can be traced though the historical factors where by those who settled in Quebec province were immigrants from France while the other provinces were settled by people mostly from Britain and other countries of Europe.

The same problem of language has also been evident in Cameroon. The western Cameroon uses English while the eastern side uses French. This was as a result of the defeat of Germany and subsequent occupation of their colonies by France and Britain. This problem has persisted even after independence where people in the two regions have adamantly refused to accept the language used by the other region in their education system.

3. Political Factors

This influences the kind and amount of education given. This is because it determines the policies governing education in terms of curriculum offered and the type of education for masses. It also affects the existence of either democratic or undemocratic systems of education. Political regimes existing in different countries across the world have also affected education systems for example socialist/communist regimes existing in countries such as China, Afghanistan and Cuba have highly centralized systems of Government that is authoritarian. The Government control all aspects of education. The use of mass media in education to achieve ideological mobilization e.g. use of education system to socialize people as it was done in Tanzania, China, Cuba. On the other hand, parliamentary/capitalist regimes, which existed in countries such as USA and Britain, have made notable effort to ensure democratic participation in education. They allow fair allocation of resources. They also have decentralized system of education where federal government schools have little on education system. The political parties in power in these countries influence the allocation of education resources to different systems e.g. the labour party in the United Kingdom promoted development and decentralization of education. In Kenya, the NARC Government implemented the FPE in 2003 and later Subsidized Secondary Education in 2007.

4. Climatic and Geographical Factors

The climatic and geographical and geographical conditions of an area may affect the school entering age. For example areas which are too cold or have long distances between home and school, children have to delay schooling. In the arctic region (Scandinavian countries) where temperatures are extremely cold children of Eskimos have to wait until such time when they are able to resist respiratory diseases such as pneumonia.

Consequently, some countries in the Northern temperature trial start their compulsory schools attendance one or two years later because of the severity of the climatic conditions.

On the other hand, maritime climate influence the education system especially when deciding on vacations. Schools take vacations during cold Winter and also during hot Summers. This is particularly seen in North America and many countries in Europe. The hot climatic conditions experienced in arid and semi-arid areas of tropical zones influence activities in systems of education. However, learning takes place during morning hours when it is cool. At times in the afternoon, when it is hot, very little learning takes place.

The geographical conditions of a place influence the distribution of population and the functions of systems of education in a country. For example, Australia has the second largest desert in the world. Consequently, the population is sparsely populated compared to the densely populated urban areas. Therefore, Australia has two systems of education one for the urban areas and another for rural areas. In urban areas there are big and well equipped schools with adequate facilities. Thus, in Scandinavian countries, because of extreme temperatures, there are not infant schools or early childhood education departments in some schools. This has also been the case with children in Norway and other Scandinavian countries where children start schooling at the age of seven. On the other hand, the long distance between the school and home makes the pupils tired and weak thus they have to wait until they attain an age, which they are strong enough to walk long distance to and from school.

The climate will also affect educational year calendars. For example in rural Eastern Kenya children start their programmes very early in the morning, when the temperatures are conducive for study. Similarly, the hot weather will affect the architectural designs and structure of schools. This adds to the cost of building these structures if they are in cold climates where heating is required. The long distance will determine the existence of either day or boarding school i.e. if the distance is long, children cannot travel to and from school everyday thus they board. The distance as well affect attendance of schools by pupils and also affects safety especially to girls.

In areas where there are distinct seasons of Winter and Summer the school holidays are synchronized such that the holiday fall during Winter. In Kenya, the holidays have been determined by seasons whereby in order to reduce dropping out during seasons the April holiday corresponds with this season in most parts of the country.

Qualified teachers and administrative personnel in rural areas, schools are small with one teacher to teach up to 40 students. Farms are far from the nearest schools and daily attendance of school difficult. It is difficult for the families to educate their children. The central Government is

responsible for their administration and financing. The Government also provides the means and organization of correspondence, tuition and travelling teachers.

5. Colonialism, Racism and Foreign Domination

This has led to existence of alien education system, philosophy and institutional management policy. The education systems are modeled alongside the foreign countries or colonialist education systems. For example, French colonized countries like Senegal and Algeria have modeled their education system along French education systems (Francophone) while British colonized countries like Kenya, Uganda have modeled their education system along British education (Anglophone).

Racist education system was provided in those countries, which were dominated by foreign powers e.g. as was in South Africa during the colonial period. During this period. During this period the

education provided to the Europeans, Asians and Africans was different from each other. Colonialism and foreign domination have lead to the dependence by the colonized countries. In this case the colonies depend on the former colonial masters for donations geared to education development. This has greatly affected the culture of the dominated countries.

6. Religious Factors

The religious factor affects the mutual educational co-operation. For example, the one of revolution in Russian and Muslims minority groups in Trial Asia were against the education of women. When the missionaries started educational reform some of them were assassinated. In areas where new schools were established, children came to them with strange symbols on their faces inscribed in blood and could not be persuaded to wash them off because they were placed there by spiritual doctors. In pure Islamic government like Pakistan, their education system has been given stronger Islamic orientation.

Religion is one factor that has influenced education more than any other single factor throughout the middle age. The church was the same agent which supplied the schools and kept flame of culture and civilization burning with the rise of national system of education, the hold of the church on the children has gone quite weak in India, USA, France and Australia. The schools supported by the state in these countries are secular in nature and no religious teaching is permitted during school hours. However, in England and Holland, denominational schools aided by the Government may become a definite part of the national education system. The Education Act of 1994 laid down that in England, in the school controlled by the state the schoolwork should continue with a religious devolution and also that religious instructions should be a definite form of the curriculum. This is no doubt done on the basis of an agreed syllabus, which is denominational and provides exceptions to those whose parents do not want their children to attend. China was an exception in that religion was banned in schools and was considered a reactionary influence associated with capitalism.

In Africa the missionaries played an important part in the establishment of education system in their home models and transplanted them to the colonies where they settled. In the areas where the missionaries did not start schools has lagged behind in education. For example in Kenya the missionaries settled in high potential areas and ignored the marginal areas. The marginal areas have lagged behind in educational provision compared to the high potential areas.

7. Historical factors

The colonial legacy in Africa has been a major factor in the provision of education. The colonies have adopted education systems of their colonial masters. This has continued to affect the education system in those countries up to present.

On the other hand cries of wars, epidemics, hunger, strikes, influenced the education systems. In Europe, Belgium has been a victim of repeated wars. France Napoleon Bonaparte helped to create

the strong centralized and departmentalized system that hold even today. He reconstructed the university and created the 'lycee' for secondary education but left the education of the masses to the churches. The colonization of Africa has left an imprint on the continent that has greatly shaped the education system in various countries.

EDUCATIONAL SYSTEMS CAMEROON EDUCATION SYSTEM

The history of Cameroon is important in understanding the evolution of education system in this country. Trial, the country was colonized by the Germans and after the World War I became a trustee for the League of Nations under the rule of British and French Governments. This has led to development of a dual system of education that exists to the present.

Background

The population of Cameroon is estimated at 15,803,220 inhabitants as of July 2001. With a surface area of 475,442 km², it is bounded to the west by Nigeria, to the Northeast by Chad to the East by central African Republic and to the South by Equatorial Guinea, Gabon and Congo. There are ten administrative regions, two (2) of which are English speaking and eight French speaking. Historically, Cameroon was founded around 1472 by a Portuguese navigator called Fernando Po who arrived the Bight of Biafra, then sailed up the Wouri River situated in the Coastal region.

The navigator was surprised to see shrimps in the river, and so baptized the river 'Riodos Camaroës (river of shrimps). This name which was to be associated to the country became 'kamerun' during the Germany colonial period and 'Cameroon' or 'Camerroun' during the British and French colonial rule. In 1884, Germany colonized Cameroon. The signing of the German-Douala treaty in July 1884, whereby Cameroon became a German protectorate, marked this event. But with the defeat of Germany in 1916 during the World War I, Cameroon was divided between Britain and France and administered first under the League of Nations mandate and later under the United Nations trusteeship. Britain got two discontinuous strips of land of about 90,000 km² along the Nigerian border: the strip to the North was called 'Northern British Cameroons' and that to the South was called 'Southern British Cameroons'. The French got the lion's share and administered it as an independent territory, whereas the British administered theirs from Lagos in Nigeria.

French Cameroon became independent on 1 January 1960. Then on 11 February 1960, British Southern Cameroon joined union with French Cameroon through a referendum. This association between the two entities was consolidated on 1 October 1961 through the Reunification of Cameroon and creation of a federation made up of two states called West Cameroon and East Cameroon. The federation survived till 20 May 1972 when a unitary state made up of seven (7) provinces was created. And later in 1984, the number of provinces was increased to ten (10) through a Presidential decree.

The educational system of Cameroon is very popular in Africa. The method of learning is different in the eastern and the western part of Cameroon. The educational system of East Cameroon followed the methods of French model and the West Cameroon's system was based on the British

model. The English sub-system of education follows the system of education that was operational in the English speaking part of the country before unification (during the trusteeship era under British). This education system reflects colonial heritage from Britain and France. Efforts have been underway since 1985 to harmonize these two systems.

Education is compulsory through the age of 14 years. Primary schools education has been free since 2000; however, families must pay uniforms and books fees. Tuition and fees at the secondary school level remain unaffordable for many families.

In 2002, the gross primary enrollment rate was 108%. Gross enrolment ratios are based on the number of students formally registered in primary school and do not necessarily reflect actual school attendance. In 2001, 84.6% of children ages 10 to 14 years were attending school. As of 2001, 64% of children who started primary school were likely to reach grade 5. Administration of formal education is under three ministries: the Ministry of National Education (from nursery to secondary education); the Ministry of Technical education and Vocational Training; and the Ministry of Higher Education. The administrative structure in Cameroon is centralized requiring endorsement of the Central Government, represented by line ministries. The Ministry of National Education at the national level makes education policies and at the Provincial and Divisional levels there are the Delegations of education with inspectorate support at the sub-division or district levels. There is however, no known education policy document, the process of putting one in place commenced in 1995 when the National Education Forum was held.

There are four main actors involved in education in Cameroon. These include government at the national, Provincial, Divisional, sub-divisional District and village levels; civil society, international development agencies and the private sector. Civil society organizations both local and international play very limited or no role in the education policy process. The Cameroonian Government has demonstrated its will to promote Education for All goals. The National EFA plan has however not entered the implementation stage despite the setting up within the Ministry of Education of an EFA Permanent Autonomous Technical Unit for the implementation of this plan. Cameroonians even at the Ministry of Education (especially at the external services) do not yet have access to this National EFA Plan of Action.

Enrolments

In 2000, the school age population at the primary level (6-12 years) was about 2.8M. In 2000/2001, 2.69M pupils enrolled, an enrolment comprising children aged less than six years, and especially those aged more than 12 years. A good number of school age children are therefore not attending school. This state of affairs is due to several factors like inadequate funding of education leading to parents paying user fees; paucity of classrooms (20% of which are temporary and improvised structures) and partly to insufficient number of teachers, with a 1 to 63 teacher-pupil ratio, a ratio that the Ministry of Education plans to reduce to 1 to 47 by 2011. The gross enrolment rate for formal education dropped from close to 100% in the 80s to 71% in 1995/1996 and rose slightly to 78% in 1997/1998. The gross enrolment rate for preschool children is low (about 10.6%) and lower

in the provinces of Adamawa (5.3%), North (4.5%) and the far North (0.7%). Between 1996 and 2000, enrollments in private schools doubled. School enrolment is not matched by teacher supply.

Structure

The Cameroonian education is mainly divided into four categories namely, tertiary education, primary, secondary and higher education. The primary schools in Cameroon provide free education to the students and it is mandatory for every pupil. There are several primary schools in the country providing basic education to the children of Cameroon. Some of the primary schools belong to the government and others are run by religious organizations.

After completing primary education, a student can pursue higher education depending upon the financial condition of the family. The secondary educational system is divided into three parts namely, secondary schools, vocational schools and apprenticeships. For further studies a student can take admission in any of the six public universities of Cameroon.

Kindergarten

In the past decade, Cameroonians have increasingly indulged in childhood education. Parents usually do so by first sending their children to kindergarten at about the age of 2 years. In the English speaking region of the country, kindergarten is known as a 'nursery school'. While in French speaking Cameroon, it is called 'l'école maternelle'. Children attend school for about two or three years, until the age of four or five when they are seen fit to start elementary or primary school ('l'école primaire', in French). The state and private individuals are the main actors running these schools. It is worth noting that education at this level is not compulsory in Cameroon.

Primary level

Primary education lasts for six years in the Anglophone system, leading to the First school leaving certificate and six years in the Francophone system leading to the certificate d'Etudes primaires elementaires (CEPE). Primary education in Cameroon now runs for six years from 7. Primary education in Cameroon is compulsory. The Government and various religious denominations like the Roman Catholic, Presbyterian, Baptist in Christian regions of the country, and Koranic ones in the Islamic regions mostly run primary schools. In the English speaking Cameroon, primary education runs for six years at the end of which students must sit and pass the general certificate exams as a prerequisite for graduation. The exams are the First School Leaving Certificate and the Common Entrance Examination. To follow some specific career paths, pupils have the opportunity to access some technical, vocational and professional exams.

Secondary education

After primary schools, there are at-least three main further channels students can pursue, depending primarily on their family financial circumstances, but also on the results obtained at the general exams. These are: secondary/ grammar schools, of which there has been quite a proliferation over the last 25 years. The principal operators in this sector are the Government, the religious denominations, and a growing number of private entrepreneurs. Here again, tuition at the Government secondary schools (GSS) is either free or costs considerably less than at the other types of school.

In the Anglophone system, the first cycle of secondary education lasts for five years and leads to the Cameroon General Certificate education Ordinary Level. Higher schools offer two year courses leading to the General Certificate of Education advanced Level. In the English speaking parts, secondary education at this selection into the government Secondary School was supposed to be based on the results obtained at the Common Entrance Exam. For example, Grammar schools generally takes five years, from ages 12 years to 17. Students specializes in arts and sciences, and at the end of the programme they must take the General certificate of Education (GSE) exam, at the Ordinary O level. The General Certificate of education Examination ordinary level is written by students after 5 years of secondary education. Students write the GSE Advanced Level A/L examination after two years of High Schools. The general Certificate of Education both ordinary and Advanced levels are the two most qualifying exams in the English Speaking part of Cameroon. The GSE Advanced Level certificate qualifies students to enter the university or other institutions of higher learning. The GCE examinations are organized by the GCE Examination Board created by the Government to handle examinations at the secondary and high school levels in the English Speaking sub-system.

In the Francophone system, the first four years of secondary education lead to the Brevet d'Etudes du premier Cycle du second Degre. At the Lycees (upper secondary), three years study lead to the Baccalaureate. Technical secondary education leads to the City and Guilds Part III and to the Baccalaureate or the Brevet de Technicien Supérieur respectively, or the Brevet professionnel. There is a Baccalaureate Board handling high school examinations for the French Educational subsystem in Cameroon (the French Equivalent of academic attainment). If they pass, they qualify for admission into a high school, involving two more years of study, at the end of which they take the GCE exam at the Advanced ('A') level. Success at this last exam opens doors to universities and other higher level institutions.

Technical and Vocational Education

The Government and the private sector are the main operators and the religious missions have shied away. The primary purpose of these schools is to train students in the technical fields or to prepare them for specific vocations. The duration for vocation education is four years after which students must take professional examination. In the old days they used to take the city and guild examinations of London but that is now being replaced by the 'certificate aptitude professionnelle (CAP) exam from Yaoundé. Success at either of these exams gets the students into a technical high school or another specialized institution, with a decent chance of securing employment upon completion. The students with poor results after the completion of primary education and those whose parents could not afford to take them to vocational colleges ended up learning a trade locally. These involved courses in motor mechanic, carpentry, trailers and bricklayers.

Higher Education

Universities, specialized institutions and schools mainly provide higher education. The Minister in charge of higher education takes final policy decisions regarding universities, although each university has a governing council. Councils have responsibility for personnel recruitment. The creation of new departments, degrees, courses and changes in regulations must receive ministerial consent. Each university receives a budget from the state. The university of Bue'a is headed by a vice chancellor who is nominated by the Government and who, in turn, is chair of the administrative council. A Rector heads other public universities. The Presidents of the Administrative Councils of Yaoundé I and II, Dschang, Ngaoundere, and Douala Universities and the pro-chancellor of Buea University were nominated. A Catholic University was established in 1990. Several higher education institutions do not fall directly under the Ministry of Higher Education, but the Minister must ascertain that they meet academic standards. Nonetheless, an emerging number of private higher technical institutions of learning like the Nacho University, Fonab polytechnic, and many others are beginning to reshape the predominantly general education style of education that for over three decades has been the turf of most Anglophone students in Cameroon.

Teacher Education

Training of pre-primary and primary/basic school teachers

Pre-primary and primary school teachers are trained at the Ecoles normales d'Instituteurs (ENI). Holders of the BEPC are trained in three years and holders of the Baccalaureat are trained in one year. They obtain the Certificat d'Aptitude pedagogique d'Instituteur de l'Enseignementmaternal et primaire (CAPIEMP). Holders of the Primary School Leaving Certificate are trained in three years. Holders of the GCE Ordinary level examinations can complete the course in two years and holders of the GCE Advanced trial examinations or those who have at-least three year teaching experience with the Grade II Certificate can complete the same course in one year.

Training of Secondary School Teachers

Secondary school teachers are trained in trial years following secondary high school or two year following a first degree at the ecoles normales super rieures for college and lycee teachers or at the Ecole normale superieure d' enseignement technique for technical secondary education teachers.

Language and Education

Cameroon is a multilingual country comprising 247 indigenous languages, two official languages and Cameroon Pidgin English. Among the indigenous languages, four are on the verge of extinction; they are Duli, Gey, Nagumi and Yeni, all from the Northern part of the country. Among the four major language families of Africa, three are represented in Cameroon. They are the AfroAsiac, the Nilo-Saharan and the Niger Kordofanian. The Niger- Kordofanian family is the

most highly represented in Cameroon, while the Khoisan family is not represented at all. The two official languages, English and French came into the Cameroon scene in 1916 when Britain and France shared Cameroon into two equal parts after defeating the German forces in the country. The new colonial masters then sought to impose their languages in the newly acquired territory both in the areas of education and administration. This led to the solid implantation of the two languages during the colonial era, a situation that was later reinforced after Cameroon became independent. At Reunification in 1961, English and French became the two official languages of Cameroon as the country opted for the policy of official language bilingualism.

French was adopted as the official language in French-speaking Cameroon while English assumed the same status in the English speaking sector. Cameroon, like many other African countries, naturally opted for the 'neutral' foreign language option as official language in order to avoid language conflict on the one hand and unwarranted financial and material cost on the other. Repetition is common

NIGERIA EDUCATION SYSTEM

A trial of educational system in Nigeria is important in that it is one of the most populous country in Africa and there is need to understand the steps that are being taken to access education to this large population. By the end of this chapter the reader should be able to:

- Trace the evolution of education in Nigeria
- To identify the major characteristics of Nigerian education system
- To identify at least three issues affecting education in Nigeria.

Background

As of mid 2008, Nigeria's population was estimated at 138 million, split primarily between Muslims (50 percent) and Christians (40 percent). Muslims constitute the majority in the north of the country and Christians in the south. Nigeria comprises of more than 250 ethnic groups. However the following are the largest and politically influential: Hausa and Fulani 29%, Yoruba 21%, Igbo (Ibo) 18%, Ijaw 10%, Kanuri 4%, Ibibio 3.5% and Tiv 2.5%. Five major languages are used in Nigeria. They are Hausa, Yoruba, Igbo, Fulani that are declared as the national languages while English is the official language and is widely spoken. Language has created a problem with respect to education. The smaller languages are not written and therefore devising instructional materials in those languages is difficult. In schools the medium of instruction in the first three years is the local language and there after English is used.

Nigeria achieved independence from the United Kingdom in 1960. Nigeria is a federal republic with a presidential system. The constitution provides for a separation of powers between the three branches of government; a strong executive, an elected legislature and an independent judiciary. The country has been affected by military coups that were interspersed by civilian rule. General elections held in February 1999 marked the end of 15 years of military rule and the beginning of civilian rule based on multi-party democracy.

Nigeria is located in Western Africa bordering the Gulf of Guinea, and between Benin and Cameroon to the east. The total land area is 923,768 sq km with land comprising of 910,768 sq km and water covers 13,000 sq km.

The country is endowed with natural resources such as natural gas, petroleum, tin, columbite, iron ore, coal, limestone, lead, Zinc and arable land. Oil accounts for 96 % of the countries foreign exchange earnings. The country produces 2.256 million barrels per day. Nigeria and western Cameroon has share similar colonial legacy. The western province of Cameroon was ruled as part of Nigeria until the cessation of the later before independence. This has been creating conflict between the two countries and has led to war due to the natural resources available such as oil.

Historical perspective

There were three fundamentally distinct education systems in Nigeria by 1990: the indigenous system, Quranic schools, and formal European-style education institutions.

Indigenous system

In the rural areas where the majority lived, children learned the skills of farming and other work, as well as the duties of adulthood, from participation in the community. Age-based schools in which mature men instructed groups of young boys in community responsibilities often supplemented this process. Apprentice systems were widespread throughout all occupations; the trainee provided service to the teacher over a period of years and eventually struck out on their own. Indigenous crafts and services from leatherwork to medicine were passed down in families and acquired through apprenticeship training as well. In 1990 indigenous education system included more than 50 percent of the school-age population and operated almost entirely in the private sector. There was virtually no regulation by the government unless training included the need for a license.

Islamic education

Islamic education was part of religious duty. Children learned up to one or two chapters of the Quran by rote from a local religious teacher, before they were five or six years old. Religious learning included the Arabic alphabet and the ability to read and copy texts in the language, along with those texts required for daily prayers. Any Islamic community provided such instruction in a mallam's house, under a tree, or in a local mosque. This primary level was the most widespread. A smaller number of those young Muslims who wished, or who came from wealthier or more

educated homes, went on to examine the meanings of the Arabic texts. Later, grammar, syntax, arithmetic, algebra, logic, rhetoric, jurisprudence, and theology were added; these subjects required specialist teachers at the advanced level. After this level, students traditionally went on to one of the famous Islamic centers of learning.

Throughout the colonial period, a series of formal Muslim schools were set up and run on European lines. These schools were established in almost all major Nigerian cities but were notable in Kano, where Islamic brotherhoods developed an impressive number of schools. They catered for the children of the devout and the rich, who wished to have their children educated in the new and European learning, but within a firmly religious context. Such schools were influential as a form of local private school that retained the predominance of religious values within a modernized school system.

Formal European system

Western-style education came to Nigeria with the missionaries in the mid-nineteenth century. Although Methodists founded the first mission school in 1843, it was the Anglican Church Missionary Society that pushed forward in the early 1850s to found a chain of missions and schools, followed quickly in the late 1850s by the Roman Catholics. In 1887 in what is now southern Nigeria, an education department was founded that began setting curricula requirements and administered grants to the mission societies. By 1914, when north and south were united into one colony, there were fifty-nine government and ninety-one mission primary schools in the south; the missions ran all eleven secondary schools, except for King's College in Lagos. The missions got a foothold in the middle belt; a mission school for the sons of chiefs was opened in Zaria in 1907 but lasted only two years. In 1909 Hans Vischer, an ex-Anglican missionary was asked to organize the education system of the Protectorate Northern Nigeria. Schools were set up and grants given to missions in the middle belt. In 1914 there were 1,100 primary school pupils in the north, compared with 35,700 in the south; the north had no secondary schools, compared with eleven in the south. By the 1920s, the pressure for school places in the south led to increased numbers of independent schools financed by private efforts and to the sending of favorite sons overseas for more advanced training.

The education system focused strongly on examinations. In 1916 Frederick Lugard, first governor of the unified colony, set up a school inspectorate. Discipline, buildings, and adequacy of teaching staff were to be inspected, but the most points given to a school's performance went to the numbers and rankings of its examination results. This stress on examinations was still used in 1990 to judge educational results and to obtain qualifications for jobs in government and the private sector.

Progress in education was slow but steady throughout the colonial era until the end of World War II. By 1950 the country had developed a three-tiered system of primary, secondary, and higher education based on the British model of wide participation at the bottom, sorting into academic

and vocational training at the secondary level, and higher education for a small elite destined for leadership. On the eve of independence in the late 1950s, Nigeria had gone through a decade of exceptional educational growth leading to a movement for universal primary education in the Western Region. In the north, primary school enrollments went from 66,000 in 1947 to 206,000 in 1957, in the west (mostly Yoruba areas) from 240,000 to 983,000 in the same period, and in the east from 320,000 to 1,209,000. Secondary level enrollments went from 10,000 for the country as a whole in 1947 to 36,000 in 1957; 90 percent of these, however, were in the south.

The formal School System

In 1982, Nigeria switched to the American system of six primary, three junior secondary, and three senior secondary school grades, but the rigid examination system remained. Education is free but not compulsory at any level. The formal education system is six years in primary schools, 3 years of junior secondary school, 3 years of senior secondary and 4 years of university education leading to a bachelors level degree in most fields.

Primary Education

Primary education begins at the age of six for the majority of Nigerians and lasts for six years. The curriculum for primary school typically includes subject areas like mathematics, English, social studies, home economics and agriculture. However, the curriculum has just recently been reviewed, and, from September 2008, the primary school curriculum includes ICT, French language and civic education. For the first three years of primary school the medium of instruction is that of the immediate environment. During this period English is taught as a subject. During the remaining years of primary school, English is progressively used as the medium of instruction. Until 2004, graduating students from primary school had to sit the Primary School-Leaving Certificate examination, this examination has been abolished and the **Primary School Leaving Certificate** is now awarded on the basis of continuous assessment.

Secondary Education

The secondary education trial lasts for six years and is divided into two three-year cycles: junior secondary and senior secondary. Junior secondary school has two streams; pre-vocational and academic and the core curriculum includes: English, mathematics, French, integrated science, social studies and introduction to technology. Pre-vocational electives include agriculture, business studies, crafts and computer education. Non pre-vocational electives include creative arts, religious

and moral education and Arabic. Students typically take between ten and thirteen subjects, including core subjects.

On the successful completion of the junior cycle students are awarded the **Junior Secondary School Certificate (JSSC) / Certificate of Basic Education**, which is necessary to progress to the senior secondary school level. Following the junior secondary school cycle, students are streamed into secondary schools, technical colleges or schools and out of school vocational training centers or apprenticeships offering a range of terminal trade and craft awards.

The senior secondary cycle lasts for three years and each student takes eight subjects from a diversified curriculum that includes six core subjects: English; mathematics; one major Nigerian language; and one elective out of biology, chemistry, physics or integrated science; one elective out of English literature, history, geography or social studies, agricultural science or a vocational subject.

The **Senior School Certificate (SSC)** is issued by the West African Examination Council and/or the National Examination Council on successful completion of the senior secondary cycle. The SSC is one of the requirements for undergraduate admission into a Nigerian university. The second requirement for entry to higher education is the **Universities Matriculation Examination (UME)**, which was first conducted in 1978 by the joint admission and matriculation board. Students taking the UME must register for English language and three subjects based on their particular major. A fifty percent total score is considered a pass for the UME examination. However, the different higher education institutions would specify different minimum requirements based on the nature of specific undergraduate programmes.

The Senior School Certificate replaced the **West African General Certificate of Education** Ordinary and Advanced levels (GCE 'O' and 'A' levels) in 1989. It should be noted that students may still take the GCE 'O' and 'A' level examinations, though these are not mandatory, and if successful this would guarantee direct entry to university without being required to take the University Matriculation Examination.

Secondary and Post Secondary Vocational Education and Training

Vocational education is provided at secondary level through science technical schools following junior school education.

Vocational and innovation enterprise institutions are vocational institutions, which have recently been established to offer part and full-time education leading to the award of certificates and national diplomas. Vocational enterprise institutions (VEIs) would admit candidates with a minimum of the Basic Education Certificate (JSC), and would cover multidisciplinary areas that would prepare learners for jobs in most industries. The Innovation Enterprise Institutions (IEIs)

would admit students with a minimum of five credits obtained in the Senior Secondary Certificate (SSC).

A two tier system of nationally certified courses is offered at science technical schools, leading to the award of **National Technical/Business Certificate** (known as Craft level Certificate pre 1995) and the **Advanced National Technical/Business Certificate** (known as the Advanced Craft level Certificate pre 1995) The National Technical/Business Certificate programme lasts three years after Junior School and the qualification is considered comparable to the Senior Secondary. The Advanced Certificate lasts one year and requires the National Technical/Business Certificate and two years relevant industrial experience for entry. This means that a student requires a minimum of six years to qualify as a master craftsman from a science technical school.

The awarding body for the National and Advanced Technical/Business Certificates is the National Business and Technical Examinations Board (NABTEB). The National Certificates are recognized by the joint admission and matriculation board (JAMB) as meeting minimum entry requirements for admission into tertiary institutions including the universities, polytechnics and colleges of education.

Non University-Sector Higher Education and Training

The provision of technical education takes place in institutions that are considered higher education in level, but non-university in status. Polytechnics, monotechnics (single-discipline training) and colleges of education all provide higher technical education and training. Entry into non-university higher education institutions is based on performance in both the Senior Secondary Certificate and in the Monotechnics, Polytechnics and Colleges of Education (MPCE) and Examination conducted by the Joint Admission and Matriculation Board (JAMB). In 2008, there were 320,000 candidates sitting the MPCE, numbers of candidates have increased significantly over recent years, reflecting the growth in interest in higher technical education and training and the recent decision by Government to allow polytechnics to award Bachelor of Technology degrees in the near future.

Polytechnics and institutes of technology award the **Ordinary Higher Diploma** on the successful completion of a two-year programme.

The **Higher National Diploma (HND)** can be taken as a two-year programme following the completion of the Ordinary Higher Diploma and one year of relevant work experience.

The **Professional Diploma** is open to holders of the HND and takes at least eighteen months postHND to complete. The Professional Diploma allows for progression to Masters level nationally.

Colleges, universities, specialized training institutes and professional bodies offer various certificates and diplomas that may be obtained after one, two or three years. The Nursing council of Nigeria awards the Diploma of Midwifery after one year of theoretic and clinical postsecondary studies and the Registered Nurse Certificate after three years of postsecondary study.

The Institute of Medical Laboratory Technology (IMLT) awards the Associate Diploma of Medical Laboratory Technology and the Fellowship Diploma on a four plus one basis of postsecondary education. The IMLT is a professional body that has cooperated with universities to offer examinations and qualifications to technologists. The exam has recently been discontinued in favour of a more academic Bachelors degree in Laboratory Technology. The award of Certificates, Diplomas and Advanced diplomas are intended to support progression to professional registration and employment in specific professional employments.

Higher Education and Training

The Nigerian system of higher education is binary in nature and is constituted of universities and a non-university sector made up of polytechnics, monotechnics and colleges of education. Accreditation processes have been introduced at higher education level to ensure certain standards. Higher education and training has also come under increased centralized control through two national commissions, the National Board for Technical Education and the National Universities Commission. These agencies grant approval for all programmes run in Nigerian university and non-university higher education and training institutions. They grant approval for the establishment of all higher education and training institutions and ensure quality assurance of programmes within such institutions.

Either federal or state governments can establish universities. While those universities established by federal government have higher enrolments, there is little or no difference between federal or state administered universities. A council and a senate govern each university. The colleges or institutes that are affiliated with the Universities are autonomous.

In 1993 the Federal government passed legislation to allow for the establishment of private institutions of higher education. The National Universities Commission maintains a register of recognized universities in Nigeria.

Minimum Entry into the university requires **five** credits passes in the Senior School Certificate and a pass on the Universal Matriculation Examination. Applicants presenting acceptable results in the Nigerian GCE A levels are granted advanced entry to stage two of a four-year Bachelor degree. The numbers applying through this direct entry route are extremely low.

The **Bachelor degree** is typically four years in duration. In the case of many professional degrees, such as medicine and dentistry, duration may extend to six years for completion. All programmes leading to the award of a Bachelor degree are at Honours degree level. Programmes may be taken

as single or combined honours and this would influence the amount of specialization in later years of the programme. A dissertation is a normal requirement for the successful completion of a Bachelor degree; however, there is not an expectation that the award holder will have undertaken independent research.

A Postgraduate Diploma (PGD) is awarded after the completion of one year of graduate study beyond the Bachelor degree. PGD programs are generally offered in education and public administration. Programmes leading to a **Masters degree** are generally one or two years in duration. The one-year programmes are coursework based and do not involve research work. Study towards the **Doctorate** generally takes three years post Masters degree. Candidates presenting for the award are required to submit a thesis and take an oral examination.

Teacher Training

Colleges of education and universities provide teacher education. The National Commission governs colleges of education. The Commission provides accreditation services for Colleges of education and maintains standards through periodic accreditation visits. The National Certificate in Education (NCE) is a professional teaching certificate awarded by a college of education. It is the minimum certificate that qualifies one to teach in junior secondary schools and technical colleges in Nigeria. The NCE takes three years to complete. Holders of the NCE will typically progress with advanced standing to a Bachelor Degree in Education in a university.

The Technical Teachers Certificate requires one additional year of study following the National Certificate in Education.

The universities offer Bachelor of Education programmes, which qualify the holder to teach in secondary schools. Alternatively, a single-subject Bachelor degree plus a Postgraduate Diploma in Education would provide the same professional status. The Higher National Diploma (HND) awarded by the polytechnics can be used to teach vocational subjects in both secondary and technical schools.

Administration and Organization of Education System

The current administrative system is divided into the Federal Capital Territory and 36 states. The management of education in Nigeria is based on this federal system, so that while basic educational policy regarding structure, curriculum and school year is centrally determined, some powers over educational delivery are devolved to state and local government. In effect, education is administered by three branches of government: primary education is under the control of local governments, secondary schools fall under the jurisdiction of the state government except the unity schools that are administered by the federal governments. Both the federal and state government administers higher education.

The Federal Ministry of Education owns and runs twenty-five universities, thirteen polytechnics, fifteen technical colleges, twenty colleges of education and sixty-six secondary schools. The remaining tertiary institutions are owned and funded by state governments, while other secondary schools are owned and funded by state governments, communities and private organizations. The administration and management of state government-owned secondary schools falls under the remit of state Ministries of Education. The administration of public primary schools falls under the local education authorities.

Reforms

The rapid expansion of the education system, compounded by a shrinking economy, has constrained educational development in Nigeria. A reduction of expenditure on education has slowed the reform process and even maintaining the system, as it currently exists is challenging. The reform agenda is underpinned by the work of the National Educational Research and Development Council (NERDC), which was established in 1972 to encourage, promote and coordinate educational research programmes in Nigeria.

Today the most crucial strategy for sustainable education development in Nigeria is the Universal Basic Education Scheme launched in 1999. The Universal Basic Education Act passed in 2004 represents the most significant reform to basic education and aims to provide free compulsory education at primary-school level and for the first three years of secondary school, as well as to provide functional literacy for adult illiterates. The national adult literacy rate is 61 per cent for men and 40 per cent for women.

In the late 1980s and 1990s the government implemented a series of far-reaching education reforms. These reforms have significantly altered the structure of secondary education. Before the changes went into effect, secondary school education closely resembled the British system consisting of GCE 'O' levels followed by two years of GCE 'A' level courses. This structure has been replaced by three years of junior secondary and three years of senior-secondary schooling.

As a result, the GCE 'O' and 'A' Levels have largely been phased out, and replaced by the Junior School Certificate and Senior School Certificate.

In addition, the secondary school curriculum has also been changed. Junior secondary schools now offer both academic and pre-vocational streams. Graduates of junior secondary schools may progress to senior secondary school or to Technical/vocational College.

Curricula at all levels of education have also been reformed to put more of an emphasis on science and technology. At the primary and secondary levels, new courses, such as environmental studies and population studies, have been introduced for the first time. Universities have also introduced

a general studies requirement to give students broad-based knowledge to compliment areas of specialization.

In September 2008 a nine-year curriculum from primary to junior secondary was introduced and was intended to ensure that by the time a child ends her basic education, she would have completed a comprehensive education that would include ICT, French language and civic education. The 6-3-3-4 school system is not being jettisoned; however an integrated curriculum covering the first nine years of school education would help to address what the Ministry of Education has described as a disconnect between primary and secondary education in Nigeria.

In October 2008 the Minister of State for Education announced that selected polytechnics and colleges of education would soon be upgraded to award university degrees. As a consequence, higher education and training qualifications would be considered as comparable regardless of whether they were achieved in a university or in a polytechnic/colleges of education. The purpose of this reform was to strengthen polytechnic education and create additional avenues for would be students in a country where hundreds of thousands of qualified school leavers were unable to secure a university place each year. Government limitations on the salary and career prospects of college graduates in the public sector have been removed.

Vocational enterprise institutions (VEIs) and innovation enterprise institutions (IEIs) are institutions recently approved by the Federal Government of Nigeria to provide a alternative route to higher education. They have been established due to the lack of capacity in higher education institutions to accommodate the multitude of secondary school leavers and the low participation of the private sector in skills training, They are private institutions that would offer vocational, technical or professional education and training at post-basic and tertiary levels to equip secondary school leavers and working adults with vocational skills and knowledge.

Issues of Education in Nigeria

Religious groups, mainly Christian missionaries from Europe who used them as tools for proselytizing and converting the Nigerian, originally established the country's schools. The curricula were faith-based and overwhelmed by religious indoctrination, dogma, and brainwashing. Education was used to convert the Nigerians to embrace Christianity or Islam. It was not an avenue for self-realization or intellectual growth.

The Nigerian government took over all the schools in trial to instill secular ideals and values into public education in the 1970s. But the Nigerian educational system has retained its religious character-Islamic in the North and Christianity in the South. The government's secularization project never achieved much. Therefore, Christianity and Islam have maintained their influence on Nigeria's schools and students, allowing no space for free, independent, and secular thoughts to thrive and flourish.

Consequently, most educated Nigerians are intellectually inclined to blind faith. The current educational climate is not only repressive but also dangerous. For over a decade, Nigerian schools, colleges, polytechnics, and universities have been bedeviled by the actions of cultists and criminals. Tertiary institutions have been scenes of violence against students by other students. School authorities have often attributed the problems to students' lack of faith, godlessness, or religious indifference. Some have turned to religious leaders for help, and they now flock to the campuses to hold crusades, prayer sessions, and revivals. This has not solved the problems either.

Other problems have been created. Nigerian campuses have been turned into religious places and the education system has become more sectarian. Religious meetings are conducted virtually everywhere in schools—in libraries, lecture halls, and even in laboratories. A number of lecturers have abandoned teaching and researching to become clerics and evangelists. There is no longer any clear demarcation between religious duties and academic work.

Nigerian schools have been turned into breeding grounds for religious militants, terrorists, and bandits. This has been the result of continuous involvement of sectorial conflicts between the Muslims and Christians in their quest to control education. Since the 1980s there have been recurring instances of crises and violence—at the University of Sokoto (1986), the University of Ibadan (1987), Queen Amina College Kaduna (1987), Ahmadu Bello University Zaria (1988), Government Vocational Training School Markafi (1990), Government Girls' College Jalingo (1992), Kaduna Polytechnic (1992), and many others. Many incidents have been sparked by efforts to introduce and implement Islamic law in the country. In February 2003, Muslim and Christian students clashed in some secondary schools in Oyo State over the wearing of the Islamic veil. Even though religious groups may have something positive to contribute to Nigerian education, such offers are complicated by the extremes of religious fundamentalism, militancy, and rivalry in the schools.

Despite Nigeria having a lot of resources such as oil, coal, tin and Zinc the proceeds have not been used to develop education in the country. The government has over relied on oil and neglected other sectors of the economy such as agriculture, education and health for the local people. There is inadequate funding by the federal, state and local governments. The funding of education for effective management and administration is poor. The entire education system in Nigeria is under funded. The problem of funding is reflected in poor teachers' remuneration, shortage of infrastructure facilities as well as misappropriations of the available funds. The inadequate funding is not in line with the rising population and inflation trends. Economic hardships among the teaching staff have encouraged moonlighting. This is further complicated by lack of materials, no incentives for research and writing and use of out dated notes by lecturers. Recently there has been violent protest in the oil rich region demanding part of the money to be invested in the local areas where oil is drilled.

This has led to low standards of education due to poor funding of the education system. More over the education system is no longer relevant since the colonial heritage and mentality still persisted. The education system lacked relevance in meeting the pressing economic, social and local cultural needs of the nation in favour of foreign ones.

Poor leadership has affected the Nigerian system. The education managers are not result oriented, are ineffective and they lack managerial and administrative skills required to successes in the execution of educational policies and programmes. The Nigerian educational administrators have progressively moved away from generating knowledge into political arena where they have become centers of political actors.

The use of examinations criterion as the primary sorting device to schools and universities has led to widespread cheating among faculties at all levels especially at secondary and post secondary levels.

The teaching of English language beyond primary schools had reached poor levels that faculties complained that they could not understand the written works of their students.

Access to education has been affected by cultural and religious factors. In the Muslim dominated areas in the north the education for girls has been neglected. There are cultures that have discouraged the participation of girls in education. In some regions due to economic problems a large population could not access education.

Questions

1. Discuss at least three issues that are affecting education in Nigeria since independence.
2. Outline four reforms that have been introduced in Nigeria from 1990 to date. 3. Describe the educational structure of education in Nigeria
4. Nigeria has three types of education that has been used to cater for the large population. Discuss the eligibility of using each type in the modern world filled with information communication and technology.
5. Discuss the rationale used by Nigerians in devolving higher education.
6. With over ten communities in Nigeria discuss the role played by the “unitary schools” in the development of national cohesion.

France Education System

France total land area is 547,030 square kilometers of land comprising 545,630 square kilometers and water of 1400 square kilometres. The whole area of metropolitan France is 543,965 square kilometres and has about 1 square kilometer, estuaries and rivers. The geographical location of France is in Western Europe. The country shares its national frontiers with various other nations. To the North is Belgium and to the East is Switzerland and Germany. Luxembourg lies to the North East while Italy is located to the South East of France. The Pyrenees mountain range is extended throughout the country. The Atlantic Ocean coastline runs through the Western part of France. The Mediterranean Sea is to the south of the country while the English Channel is to the North. England is one of the premier neighbors of France.

The Geography of France largely influences the climate. The temperature of France is on the moderate side. The climate is basically ruled by the mild summers and cold winters. The southwest portion of the country receives heavy precipitation during the winters. The mountainous regions of Auvergne, Pyrenees, and Alps experience snowfall in the winters. Climatic and geographical factors have little effects on the education system at least in the metropolitan France, apart from the existence of boarding schools system in the mountainous regions of Alps and Pyrenees, which is gradually dying out.

The administrative set up of France consists of 22 regions. The regions come under seven premier 'cultural regions'. They are Ile de France, Northern France, Northeast France, Great West, Central France, Southwestern France and Southeastern France. The 22 regions are further divided into: 96 service departments are divided into 329 districts - in addition divided into cantons 3879 - and the township divided into common 36568. According to the enrollment figures for 2004, there were 6.7 million students in primary, 4.8 million in secondary and 2.3 million in post secondary institutions.

The **French educational system** is highly centralized, organized, and ramified. It is divided into three different stages:

- Primary education (*enseignement primaire*);
- Secondary education (*enseignement secondaire*);
- Higher education (*enseignement supérieur*).

Primary and secondary educations are predominantly public. However there is a sizeable number of private schools also exist, in particular a strong nationwide network of primary and secondary Catholic schools. Education has both public and private elements.

While the French trace the development of their educational system to Charlemagne, the modern era of French education begins at the end of the nineteenth century. Jules Ferry, a lawyer holding the office of Minister of Public Instruction in the 1880s, is widely credited for creating the modern Republican school (*l'école républicaine*) by requiring all children under the age of 15 to attend. He also made public instruction free of charge and secular.

Educational programmes in France are regulated by the Ministry of National Education (officially called *Ministère de l'éducation nationale, de l'enseignement supérieur et de la recherche*). The head of the ministry is the Minister of National Education, one of the highest-ranking officials in the cabinet. The teachers in public primary and secondary schools are all state civil servants, making the *ministère* the largest employer in the country. Professors and researchers in France's universities are also employed by the state.

At the primary and secondary levels, the curriculum is the same for all French students in any given grade, which includes public, semi-public and subsidized institutions. However, there exist specialized sections and a variety of options that students can choose. The reference for all French educators is the *Bulletin officiel de l'éducation nationale, de l'enseignement supérieur et de la recherche (B.O.)* which lists all current programmes and teaching directives. It is amended many times every year.

Structure of education in France Pre-primary education

Pre-primary education (nursery school) created in 1881 is for children aged 3 to 6. Although it is not compulsory, virtually all 3-year-old children attend nursery school, majority in the public school system. They are state funded, attendance is optional and placement is not guaranteed especially for younger children; children as young as two can attend but must be potty trained. With a dual educational and pedagogical objective, children learn how to live among others, shape their own personality and develop language skills. Nursery school is the strong point of the French education system and what sets it apart from other systems. Many parents start sending their children earlier though, around age 3 as nursery classes (*maternelle*) are usually affiliated to a borough's primary school. Some even start earlier at age 2 in *pré-maternelle* classes, which are essentially daycare centres. The last year of *maternelle*, *grande section* is an important step in the educational process as it is the year in which pupils are introduced to reading. They accept children from age of 2 to five years. It also makes primary education more effective. Nursery school teachers have the same training as primary school teachers and can teach in all primary education grades. The pre school education is well developed and teachers in the '*écoles maternelles* hold the same qualifications as the primary school teachers. Virtually all French children are *scolarise*' before starting primary schools.

Primary education

After nursery, the young children move on to primary school. Primary school is compulsory for all students, French and foreign alike, starting at age six. Primary education lasts for five years and caters for the 6-10 age group. It aims to teach children some degree of autonomy and the basics about citizenship. It is in the first year (*cours préparatoire*) that they learn how to write and develop their reading skills. Much akin to other educational systems, French primary school students usually have a single teacher (or perhaps two) who teaches the complete curriculum, such as French, mathematics, science and humanities. There is no structural difference between the private and government schools. School attendance is compulsory between the ages 6-16 years. Most of them are co-educational at all levels and classes are held in the morning and afternoon. The primary school attendance has dropped because of a drop in birth rates. Grade repetition is on the decrease, as it is believed that repeating would jeopardize the pupils' future and that's why Pre School and primary school are related. Grade repetition is common with pupils from underprivileged groups.

Secondary education

French secondary education is divided into two schools:

- the *collège* for the first four years directly following primary school • the *lycée* for the next three years.

The completion of secondary studies leads to the *baccalauréat*.

First cycle: Junior High Schools

Children aged 11 to 15 attend *college* that are considered comprehensive because theoretically children study the same core curriculum. A diploma awarded upon the successful completion of an exam at the end of form 3 marks the conclusion of *collège*. Pupils spend four years in a college (6th, 5^{ème}, 4^{ème} and 3^{ème}) that correspond to the final year of compulsory education. Grade repetition rate remains the same overall. The average number of pupils per class is 24.3 and majority goes through the system from the 6th 'ème to 3rd 'ème, which is the final class. The Brevet des collèges is the first official diploma a pupil has to sit. It is not required in order to enter *lycée*. Until 2006 the school marks for the whole of the final year (3^{ème}) were taken into account for half of the mark. The other half of the mark consisted of the final exam, the brevet. Pupils were only tested on French, mathematics and history/geography for the exam. The curriculum of study at this level included humanities, languages and science. The students study French language and literature, history and geography, a foreign language or French regional language, art and craft, music

education and civics. In the sciences they study mathematics, biology and geology, technology, physics and chemistry. There are also optional courses such as technology, latin and ancient Greek.

Second trial: Lyce'e

Adolescents aged 15 to 18 attend the *lycée*, taking them from form 2 (*seconde*) to

their final year (*terminale*). *Lycées* offer a large range of education and training possibilities. There are **two types** of *lycées*. General and technical education *lycées* culminate in a "general series" *baccalauréat*. Vocational *lycées* culminate in a *certificat d'aptitude professionnelle* (CAP- which sanctions training in a specific vocational skill), a *brevet d'études professionnelles* (BEP - which sanctions the completion of adequate training within a range of technical skills in a particular trade, industrial, commercial or social field) or a "vocational" *baccalauréat*. Majority of the students continue to the second cycle due to social aspirations. The *baccalauréat* (also known as *bac*) is the end-of-*lycée* diploma students sit for in order to enter university, a *classe préparatoire*, or professional life. It is generally taken at 18 if the pupil has not repeated a class during secondary school. The term *baccalauréat* refers to the diploma and the examinations themselves. There is also the *baccalauréat technologique* and *baccalauréat professionnel*. Created in 1808, the *baccalauréat* is a diploma in the French education system that has two special features. It marks the successful conclusion of secondary studies and opens access to higher education.

General lycees

The lycees prepare pupils for three years (2nd 'eme, 1st 'eme and terminal) for the baccalaureate, which seven out of ten pupils sit. . Most students sit for the *baccalauréat général*, which is divided into three streams of study, called *séries*. The *série scientifique* (S) is concerned with the natural sciences, physics or mathematics (many streams exist, one of which is called *série scientifique sciences de l'ingénieur* (SSI), a *série scientifique* baccalauréat with two more specialisations, *génie électrique* and *génie mécanique*. There is also the *Bac STI, Sciences & industrial technologies*. There also exists the *option génie mécanique* and the *options electrotechnique*), the *série économique et sociale* (ES) with social sciences, and the *série littéraire* (L) focuses on French and foreign languages, art and philosophy. The third serie involves économique et sociale (ES) that includes the study of economics, social sciences and mathematics. However, these *séries* are not exactly specializations and every *bac*-possessor has the right to integrate any public university in the catchments area if this applies to the subject they wish to apply for. Students having followed the L series does not have enough scientific knowledge from their secondary education alone to succeed in science university courses, therefore some combinations of baccalauréats and university courses are very rare. The introduction of specialization into preferred careers among students in the secondary schools before entering universities is exemplified in the series. Enrolment comprises of 40 % of the age cohort and grade repetition is high at this level with 10% for the first

year (2nd 'eme) and 12% of the second year (1st 'eme). Private schools enroll a fifth of this cohort group. Three quarter of those sitting for the baccalaureate pass the exam and one third of the cases are technical baccalaureate. Pupils from less privileged groups benefits from passing the baccalaureate compared to those from good backgrounds. Those from wealthy backgrounds favour the sciences while those from poor favour technical sections.

Technical/Vocational high schools (Lyc'ees professionnelle)

This is the other stream of the second cycle of secondary education. There is high drop out rate of about 40 % despite the increase of those attending them. After lower secondary education (lasting four years), pupils may opt either for general/technological or professional education in lycées preparing for the Baccalauréat, the Baccalauréat technologique or the Baccalauréat professionnel in three years; or for technical/vocational education in lycées professionnels preparing first for the Certificat d'Aptitude professionnelle (CAP) or the Brevet d'Etudes professionnelles (BEP) in two years and then, for those who want to continue, for the Baccalauréat professionnel in two more years. Initial vocational training or the vocational track offers concrete studies in relation with enterprises and their trades so that students can gain knowledge and expertise in an

Occupational field. After completing form 3, students can study in a vocational *lycée* to obtain a CAP or a BEP in two years. Students enrolled in initial vocational training courses can obtain a degree quickly to help them integrate into working life. This cycle is divided into two streams that of general lyc'ee and technical high schools. A quarter of the pupils attend private schools. Pupils can go direct to work or go to general technical high school or stay on in vocational high schools to prepare for one of the vocational baccalaureate (bac's pros) created in 1987. Majority of the students are female in second cycle of secondary education. Those who reach baccalaureate are from southwest and West France rather than in Northeast. Majority passes the baccalaureate leading to great demand for higher education.

Higher education

Higher education entails all studies after the *baccalauréat*. France has very old universities dating back between 1208 and 1210 A.D. They remain traditional offering general rather than professional education. Universities (including Instituts nationaux polytechniques) are open to a large number of students, whose programmes are generally geared towards research and its applications. Higher education is funded by the state and fees are very low. Students from lowincome families can also apply for scholarships. Academic councils called académies are responsible for supervising all aspects of University education in a given region.

Two systems exist side by side:

An open system in the universities. Most students' trial under this system and women are the majority. All *baccalauréat* holders have the right to enter this system without any prior selection procedure. Universities offer an extremely wide range of studies. They can specialize in humanities, social science, law, economics and medicine. There is high drop out rates at this level. Professional training courses within the university system have been created since 1970s catering for all levels. Entrance to the courses is selective and technical training courses are organized in the top classes of high schools. In this country there is no open university.

University trial studies:

University trial first stage:

Premier Trial (2 years in the pre-Bologna system; 3 years in the post-Bologna system):

The first cycle of university courses passed from 2 to 3 years after the implementation of the Bologna Degree structure. It leads, three years after the Baccalauréat, to the Licence corresponding to 180 ECTS. The Diplôme d'Etudes universitaires générales (DEUG) used to be the diploma awarded in the old system after two years of studies; it has been maintained in the new system as an intermediate diploma corresponding to 120 ECTS. In Medicine, the first cycle is called PCEM. Two years in Classes Préparatoires aux Grandes Ecoles (CPGE) are required to enter a Grande Ecole.

University level second stage: Deuxième Cycle (2 years in the post-Bologna system):

The second cycle in the post-Bologna system leads to the Master Recherche (formerly Diplôme d'études approfondies - DEA) or to the Master Professionnel (formerly Diplôme d'études supérieures spécialisées - DESS) corresponding to 120 ECTS after the Licence. In the pre- Bologna system it used to lead to the Licence, one year after the DEUG, and to the Maîtrise one more year after the Licence. The Maîtrise has been maintained as an intermediate diploma and can be awarded one year after the License upon request of the student. The "Grade de Master" has been awarded since 1999 to holders of DEA, DESS, of some Engineering degrees (Titres d'ingénieur) and of some écoles de commerce degrees (diplômes visés). In professional fields, the following Maîtrises can still be awarded: Maîtrise des Sciences et Techniques (MST), Maîtrise des Sciences de Gestion (MSG), Maîtrise des Méthodes informatiques appliquées à la gestion (MIAGE). The Magistère was awarded three years directly after the DEUG (or the DUT). It is not a national diploma, but rather a "diplôme d'université" (DU) accredited in the past by the ministry of education. It associates fundamental and scientific knowledge, professional applications and introduction to research. It is possible to distinguish between general magistères, prepared together with a DEA or master recherche, leading to a doctorate, and the professionally oriented magistères, usually prepared together with a DESS or master professional. Not being a national diploma, the magistère

has no legal protection and accreditation procedures stopped in 1988 - 1989. With the implementation of the Bologna system in 2004, some *magistères* disappeared. *Maîtrise* holders of *Instituts universitaires professionnalisés* and engineering students in their last year of engineering school can be admitted to a *Diplôme de Recherche technologique (DRT)* (Technological Research Diploma), a third cycle diploma issued after completion of a course centering on innovation through technological research in the industrial sector and service industries. The DRT marks the successful completion of a programme of 18 months to two years that is carried out in an industrial or service-oriented scientific environment. In Medicine this cycle (DCEM) consists of four years of study and hospital internship. In Dentistry and Pharmacy, it leads to the *Diplôme d'Etat de Docteur en Chirurgie Dentaire* and to the *Diplôme d'Etat de Docteur en Pharmacie* after six years. In the *Grandes Ecoles*, a Diploma is awarded in Engineering or Commerce, generally three years after two years at university or at CPGE. The *Titre d'Ingénieur* is conferred upon successful completion of five years of study beyond the *Baccalauréat*. Some *école d'ingénieur* accept students on the basis of a competitive examination generally taken two years after the *Baccalauréat* (in this case, studies last three years at most) or according to the *Baccalauréat* results, followed by aptitude tests and an interview (in this case, studies last four or five years). The *établissements d'Enseignement supérieur catholique*, besides preparing to State diplomas at this level (in agreement with a public university), offer four-year and six-year ecclesiastic canonical qualifications.

University level third stage: Troisième Cycle:

In the pre Bologna system, the third cycle was devoted to specialization and training for research. It offered two paths: a professional one, leading in one year to the *Diplôme d'Etudes Supérieures Spécialisées (DESS)*, and a doctoral one leading in one year to the *Diplôme d'Etudes Approfondies (DEA)* and then to the *Doctorat*. The latter was obtained three or four years after the DEA and after extensive research, either individual or as part of a group supervised by a *Directeur de Thèses* (thesis director) and the writing and successful defence of a thesis. In the post Bologna system the third cycle corresponds to doctoral studies; a doctorate is usually obtained after at least three years of extensive research, under the supervision of a thesis director, and the writing and successful defence of a thesis. Several schools of Engineering, Business and Management offer a *Mastère spécialisé* to students who are recipients of Engineering degrees or the DEA. The *Mastère spécialisé* is a specialized 12-month programme (including four months' training). It is not recognized by the State. It is a label that is controlled by the "*Conférence des Grandes Ecoles*", given to a specific programme organized by a school that is a member of the "*Conférence des Grandes Ecoles*", and after an accreditation procedure. In general Medicine, the third cycle culminates in the *Diplôme d'Etat de Docteur en Médecine* after two years' further study following DCEM. In specialized Medicine, it leads to the *Diplôme d'Etudes spécialisées (DES)* after four to five years' further study.

University level fourth stage: Post-doctorate:

The Doctorate may be followed by a post-doctoral degree, the *Habilitation à Diriger les Recherches*, which constitutes the highest national award and is offered to academics who display the ability to carry out high level scientific research and to supervise thesis.

A selective system with a limited number of places. They make up the second largest sector of higher education. They mostly involve engineering schools, business school and school of administration. Mostly they are private institutions and are attended by limited number of students. Admission is by competitive examination, entrance examination or applications, sometimes accompanied by an interview. This is the system in use in post-secondary establishments such as the *instituts d'études politiques* (political science institutes), engineering and business schools, *instituts universitaires de technologie* (IUTs- university institutes of technology) and the *instituts universitaires professionnalisés* (IUPs – university institutes of vocational education) and “top tier” establishments such as the *grandes écoles*, (prestigious higher education institutions with competitive entrance exams) such as the *Ecole Nationale d'Administration* (ENA – which trains top civil servants) the *écoles normales supérieures* (ENS - which prepare students specializing in fundamental or applied scientific research to teach at university level and preparatory programs for entrance examinations to the *grandes écoles*) and Polytechnique. The "Grandes Ecoles" offer a high standard of professional education in three or more years after two years of "classes préparatoires" and the passing of a very selective competitive entrance examination. They offer scientific training, teacher training or advanced business studies. Five "Etablissements d'Enseignement supérieur catholique" prepare for either national or professional diplomas or for church diplomas. Universities confer national diplomas. These institutions mainly train public sector and private sector senior and middle leaders and managers. They are a direct route to leading posts in France society and student from the upper strata enroll in these courses rather than the university.

Lycées also offer non-university higher education courses leading to the Brevet de Technicien supérieur (BTS). Whereas most institutions come under the responsibility of the Ministry of Education and Research, some "Grandes Ecoles" come under the responsibility of other Ministries. Universities are made up of units offering curricula in academic fields and of various institutes and schools - such as the IUT - offering courses in Engineering and Technology and special programmes in Management, Political Science, Languages and Physical Education, the IUFM (Instituts Universitaires de Formation des Maîtres) which offer training courses for primary and secondary schools teachers, the IUP (Instituts Universitaires Professionnalisés) which offer technological courses and practical training with an introduction to research and foreign languages. **Non-university level post-secondary studies (technical/vocational type):**

Short-study courses last for two years after the Baccalauréat and lead to a terminal diploma: Brevet de Technicien supérieur (BTS), a national diploma awarded in vocational and service areas. Courses are provided in Lycées; Diplôme universitaire de technologie (DUT) offered in Instituts universitaires de Technologie to train middle-level managers in Industry and Commerce; Diplôme d'Etudes universitaires scientifiques et techniques (DEUST) offered in various fields related to national or regional needs. DUT and DEUST diplomas are offered in Universities and are equivalent to a first cycle in a Université. A DUT graduate may, in some cases, pursue higher studies leading to the Licence and other degrees.

Special education

Some students have special educational trial because of their physical disabilities, language and health problems, but also if they have severe learning difficulties. There are structures that respond to these students' needs, which work to integrate them into, mainstream schools. Special education takes place in state schools. Primary education may be in special classes within ordinary schools or in special institutions Children with special needs continue their secondary education in special secondary schools where they receive vocational training. . There is a policy of integration and early diagnoses of some problems.

Administration, Supervision structure and operations

The French education system is highly centralized. The principal of centralism was introduced by La Chalotais in 1763 and was supported by the writers of the revolution. Napoleon adopted it to facilitate the control that he needed in training an elite to run his empire. In France, authority is centralized in the Ministry of Education under the control of parliament. The country is divided into seventeen academies for the purpose of administration of education. A Lector who is appointed by the president of the republic heads each academy. The Lector is directly responsible to the minister of education. He is chosen from among the professors and has total control of an academy from nursery school to the university. He over sees both the state and private educational institutions.

There are inspectors in each department of the academy. They are specialist in respective types of education provided in each department. The departmental councils administer the whole primary education and it is responsible for the recruitment, training, and promotion of primary school teachers.

At the central level, the minister and his advisers are assisted by a body of inspectors of national education who visit educational institutions and keeps the minister informed of the general picture of education in France. The inspectors plan the programmes of studies for the schools including the methods of instruction.

The administration of examinations is centralized. All examinations are trial examinations. This means that any type of examination in the education system is merely a school leaving examination. Any child anywhere in France as long as he/she has reached the right age can present himself/herself for the appropriate examination anywhere in France. The various institutions do give their certificates and diplomas but they are of no use. This ensures that every body has covered the programmes of work for a particular certificate or diploma; it ensures uniformity in coverage of programmes of studies and even the approaches. Some examinations are competitive and the numbers of those who qualify depend on places available.

Decentralized management

From the 19th century, *communes* have been responsible for running primary schools.

Major measures to decentralize powers in the early 1980s marked an important stage in the evolution of the French education system giving a greater role to departments and

regions. The Act of 13 August 2004 on local authorities and freedoms increased the powers of local elected authorities when it comes to education. While the initiatives of local and regional authorities are growing in number, it is still the central government's responsibility to decide on curricula, educational guidelines, recruitment and teachers' salaries.

Education financing

The education system consumes 6.4 % of the Gross National Product (GNP). Education is financed by the state. However, the regions, departments and communes have increased proportions of funding leading to a decrease in state funding from 1982-83 decentralisation. Employers contribute in form of apprenticeship tax and households also contribute. Much of the expenditure goes to teachers' salaries. In universities there is no fee paid by the students. Universities and institutes of technology consume much of the resources due to their heavy operational costs and the large teaching staff. Families take care of school supplies and clothing. The Ministry of education provides grants and only those disadvantaged in secondary are eligible for the grants. Those in vocational secondary schools are considered. School textbooks are free in primary and first cycle of secondary education. In higher education 23 % of the students receive some form of aid and majority are based on the background of the family. The government guarantees the loans provided

Curriculum development and teaching methodologies

There are strict stipulations concerning the number of hours to be devoted annually to programmes at primary and secondary levels. The national programmes committee composed of outside experts

appointed by the minister draws up the programmes. There are no regional variations and programmes are adopted at national levels. School textbooks and teaching materials are produced by private enterprises and there is no control and approval. In secondary schools ten languages are offered and at least three languages have to be taught. Inspectors verify the covering of the programmes and all subjects are examined in the baccalaureate. Universities are free to choose their programmes and the minister must approve the content of the diplomas.

Promotion to the next grade is not automatic. Teachers decide who is to move on to the next grade. In primary school level teaching staff decides but at college and lycees the class council takes the matter. The family is made aware of the decision and they can appeal especially in the second cycle if they are not satisfied.

Religion and education

Religious instruction is not supplied by public schools. *Laïcités* (secularism) is one of the main precepts of the French republic. Pupils therefore have civics courses to teach them about *la République*, its function, its organization, and its famous motto *Liberté, Égalité, Fraternité* (Liberty, Equality, Fraternity). In a March 2004 ruling, the French government banned all "conspicuous religious symbols" from schools and other public institutions with the intent of preventing proselytisation and to foster a sense of tolerance among ethnic groups. Some religious and libertarian groups showed their opposition, saying the law hindered the freedom of religion as protected by the French constitution. This was further supported by 1905 law that granted religious freedom in predominantly Roman Catholic France but also withdrew financial support and formal recognition from all faiths. Religious education and symbols had been banned from public schools. Laïcité (Secularism) has become the state religion and the republican schools are the temples. In France highly centralized education system, the national curriculum mandates no religious instruction beyond general examinations of religious tenets and faith as it occurs in history lessons. Religious instructions such as Catholic catechism, is strictly voluntary. In return for teaching the national curriculum and being open to students of all faiths, the government pays teachers salaries and a subsidy per students in the private religious schools. Catholic schools are free to allow girls to wear a headscarf. Many others impose the state ban, but several others tolerate a discreet version.

The various educational reforms since the revolution of 1789 contained efforts to secularize education. In the laws of 1882 and 1904 made the state system stronger and eventually four fifths of compulsory age group was attending secular schools. In 1936 when free education was introduced in the lycees and colleges, the catholic schools were losing grounds despite the support they had from the Marshal Petain from 1934. On the other hand the socialist and the communists favour a state monopoly with prohibitions of denominational schools under the church control, whilst the Catholics want to integrate the voluntary catholic schools with the state system with general acceptance of religious instructions and church influence. It has been difficult to achieve either of the two situations and therefore France has returned to the old dualism of catholic and secular systems to avoid a split that could cause an open civil war.

Private education

In France private education was recognized in several stages starting in the mid-19th Century. Private education for primary school was organized by the Act of 30 October 1886, secondary education by the Act of 15 July 1875 (Falloux Act), higher education by the Act of 12 July 1875 and technical education by the Act of 25 July 1919. It's the Debré law of 1959 (added to the Education Code in 2000) that governs private education today. The government announces and respects the freedom of education and ensures its exercise in legitimate private institutions. One primary student out of 7 and 1 lower and higher secondary student out of 5 attend private schools.

In return for public funding, private schools must adhere to requirements and public service obligations that limit the freedom they have. Private schools are connected to the State through **various types of contracts**. Two thirds operate under partnership contracts and the remaining third operates under a simple contract that is less binding but provides for fewer subsidies as well. In order for the more popular partnership contract to be granted, private schools must meet the following requirements:

- it must meet a recognized educational need;
- its facilities must be adequate;
- it must have a faculty-student ratio that corresponds to the public;
- it must hire teachers with the same qualifications and degrees required of public school teachers.

In a school under partnership contracts, the central government pays the salaries of teacher and other staff. The local government pays for the running of the school; equivalent to the aid it grants public schools. However, families bear the cost of facilities and religious activities.

Teacher education

Training of pre-primary and primary/basic schoolteachers

Training lasts for one year following success in a competitive examination. "Professorat des écoles" (formerly known as "instituteur") candidates must hold at least a Licence or a three-year diploma from any state, and they have to be European Union citizens to be allowed to sit for the competitive examination. In order to prepare themselves, candidates can decide to be trained in one year at an Institut Universitaire de Formation des Maîtres. They must present a portfolio and/or pass an interview. This year of preparation is not compulsory.

Training of secondary school teachers

Secondary school teachers train for one year following success in a competitive examination.

“CAPES”, “CAPET” and “Agrégation” candidates must hold at least a Licence or a three-year diploma from any state, and they have to be European Union citizens to be allowed to sit for the competitive examination. In order to prepare themselves, candidates can decide to be trained in one year at an Institut Universitaire de Formation des Maîtres. They must present a portfolio and/or pass an interview. This year of preparation is not compulsory.

Training of higher education teachers

The Doctorate is a prerequisite to sit for competitive examinations leading to the positions of Maître de Conférence and Professeur d'Université. In the fields of Pharmacy, Law and Economics and, now, in many other fields, positions are restricted to holders of an Agrégation de l'Enseignement Supérieur. The Habilitation à Diriger les Recherches is required to become a Professeur d'Université.

Non-traditional studies:

Distance higher education

Télé-enseignement universitaire is offered to students who are unable to attend regular courses. 35 universities cooperate in this. The Centre national d'Enseignement à Distance (CNED) provides training leading to a large variety of diplomas, to adult education courses and to competitive examinations for civil service positions.

Lifelong higher education

Education permanente is a system of continuing education allowing people with full-time careers to attend evening classes in universities and thus obtain a degree without interrupting their working schedules. The Conservatoire des Arts et Métiers (CNAM) offers such facilities leading to the award of an Engineering diploma. Catholic universities organize upgrading traineeships and courses leading to diplomas.

Higher education training in industry

Several higher education institutions (public and private) offer professional training "en alternance" (sandwich courses), consisting in theoretical training and practice periods in business or industry.

Other forms of non-formal higher education

Both private and public institutions have "Universités du Troisième âge". In these universities, senior citizens are offered two options: either to follow university courses with other students or attend seminars and lectures especially devised to improve their life and cultural background; their advice is also sought when it comes to choosing study topics of common interest. Finally, cycles of physical education, handicraft, cultural visits and outings are also organized.

Challenges of the French education system

1. There is need for better trained teaching personnel
2. The system has to deal with the growing cultural differences within the schools and student population
3. The system has to streamline the pupils in the lycees and colleges with a democratic education.
4. The system needs to reduce the discrepancies in order to balance the education between whole generations and individual personality.
5. There is the problem of shifting of financial implications from the state to the local communities.
6. There has been a problem of strikes especially in 1968 that affected the education system.

Activity

1. Discuss how the historical factors have shaped the development of the French education system
2. Describe the structure of education in France.
3. Discuss the main challenges facing education in France.

EDUCATION SYSTEM OF ENGLAND (BRITAIN) INTRODUCTION

It is good to study the educational system of England since the educational systems of most African countries are modeled on them. In fact Africa today is divided and often referred to as either English or French speaking. In this topic therefore we would like to trace the background of the educational systems of France and England, identify the major characteristics of these two systems of education and also compare the two educational systems.

BACKGROUND

One of the main characteristic of the English education system is the total autonomy in the management and control of education. This characteristic may be traced to the elementary Bill of

1970, which introduced a national system of education by preserving voluntary (charitable) schools (schools organized and supported by people who give their services without expecting rewards/payments), dividing the country in school districts, giving denominations a short period in which to provide schools with aid for buildings and encouraging the central government to be neutral and secular, following the enactment of the Act, enrollment in schools increased and by 1880 elementary education had been made fully compulsory and by 1981 largely free

The Education ACT of 1902 further enhanced the development of this Act, since it marked a new beginning in the English Educational system. For the first time in English History of Education, all grades i.e. elementary, secondary and higher education were put under the control of one single local authority. At the same time the state assumed the whole responsibility of secular instruction of the people

The Education Act of 1944 introduced the three stages of the English Education system i.e primary, secondary and further education.

The Act also introduced compulsory education for age 5-15 years

The structure of the Education system

Levels of Education Pre-primary Education

This is for children aged 3 months to three years

Provision of education is largely by private and voluntary sectors and parents pay fees. Voluntary sectors did not pay. The provision of education from age 3-5 years is currently being expanded and developed in conjunction with private and voluntary sectors. The 2002 education act

Primary education

This caters for children aged 5-11 years

Education is compulsory from age five. There is no charge for admitting pupils to public funded primary schools. Due to this there was a large no of pupils to join public primary school. Pr

Parents may apply to any school for a place for their child

The local authority or the school governing body establishes an admission policy to explain how places will be allocated if there are more applicants than places at the school

However Admission policies usually give priority to

- children who live closest to the school
- Children who already have brothers and sisters at the school

○ **Or Children with special needs which may be best met by the school- Note this**

All primary schools accept pupils without regard to ability

All primary schools are of mixed sex

The curriculum of the primary school is divided into 2 key stages (KS). KS 1 for ages 5-7 and KS2 for ages 7- 11. Pupils study English, design & technology, geography, information technology, music, science, art, physical education and History except foreign language. Outside the national curriculum religious education is also compulsory from KS1.

Promotion from one stage to the other is automatic and does not depend on results of the assessment, however there are statutory assessments on entry to primary school and at the end of Key Stages 1 & 2. These assessments include teacher assessments and externally set and externally marked and moderated tests.

Secondary Education

It caters for children aged 11 – 16 or 18.

No charge is made for pupils getting admitted to publicly funded secondary schools.. Trial secondary schools accept students without regard to academic abilities.

At secondary school level pupils continue with two more stages, KS3 (11 to 14),KS4 (14 to 16). (Fewer subjects) A foreign language is compulsory at KS3.

Similar sex education is compulsorily taught from KS3

At this level there are two public examinations, the General Certificate of Secondary Education (GCSE), taken after two years, beginning in year 10 and ending in may/june of year 11. Here up to 10 subjects are taken but the average is 6. Then there is the General Certificate of Education (Advanced Level) taken after 2 years, beginning in year 12 and the exams are taken in may/june of year 13. Here 5 or 5 subjects may be studied and grades awarded are A-E. A student is offered a place in the university based on the grades obtained at this level.

Higher Education

Higher education refers to all post school courses above the 'A' Level standards. Higher Education institutions include universities polytechnics, and colleges. The 1992 Act enabled polytechnics to award their own degrees. These institutions are autonomous and each determines their own admission policy and requirements.

The Universities and colleges however have the Universities and College admission service, (UCAs) which acts as a central agency on behalf of the universities and colleges. The UCAs process student's application to courses at these institutions.

Teacher Education

The training of teachers in England involves a four year bachelor of Education degree course or a bachelors degree course followed by a one year postgraduate Certificate in education (PGCE). Teachers ARE not civil servants, and are either employed by the local authority or by the individual institution depending on the type of school

Administration and financing of Education

In England most pupils and students attend public schools. For example in the year 2000 about

96% of the students in primary secondary and higher education were in public funded institutions. The rest were in private institutions that are not aided by the government such as independent schools.

Public schools are financed by the government and administered through local authorities. However, today many public schools finance their own finances, these schools are known as grant maintained schools.

The independent schools (schools in the private sector), rely solely on fees charged to parents. Majority of them are boarding schools and a few day schools.

National the responsibility of providing education services lies with the department for Education and Skills (DEFs) in England.

The inspection of schools is the responsibility of a separate, non ministerial government department known as the Office for standards in Education (Ofsted).

The planning and funding of further education is the responsibility of the learning and skills council (LSC) in England.

Some Contemporary issues in Education

BRAINDRAIN

By the end of this chapter the students should be able to:

- a) Give a working definition of what brain drain entails
- b) Identify six factors that cause brain drain.
- c) Identify six possible solutions that developing countries should employ in trial to reverse brain drain.

Brain drain is a new phenomenon of the 20th century. It can be defined as the migration of highly skilled individuals who are trained in one country and take up residence and work in another. In this circumstance, professionals, in whom a nation has invested a considerable amount of educational resources, leave their native land and seek employment opportunities elsewhere. Secondly, it can be defined as the migration of “human capital” across international borders in form of migrant. The migrants move to countries, which they are not nationals for the purpose of employment. These migrants are persons not possessing the citizenship of their country of employment. More over brain drain or human capital flight is an emigration of trained and talented individuals (human capital) to other nations or jurisdiction, due to conflicts, lack of opportunity, health hazards where they are living or other reasons. It parallels the term capital flight, which refers to financial capital that is no longer invested in the country where its owners lived and earned it. Investment in higher education is lost when a trained individual leaves and does not return. Also, whatever social capital the individual has been a part of is reduced by his or her departure. Scientist, engineers, academics and physicians who have been trained with scarcely available resources at social cost in their home countries for the benefits and growth of their nations. However this has simply left helplessness to the concerned institutions and countries of the south that have been losing thousands of their highly educated workers for the benefit of the rich countries and individuals themselves. This phenomenon can occur either when individuals who study abroad and complete their education do not return to their home country, or when individuals educated in their home country emigrate for higher wages or better opportunities. The second form is arguably worse, because it drains more resources from the home country. The phenomenon is perhaps most problematic for developing nations, where it is widespread. In these countries, higher education and professional certification are often viewed as the surest path to escape from a troubled economy or difficult political situation.

The history of massive brain drain started in USA in 1960s, when scientists were encouraged to go there in order to challenge the launching of sputnik (1957) by the former Soviet Union. They provided increased expenditure for highly skilled personnel that were met by immigration. During this period both the developed and less developed were launching efforts to industrialize and wanted to catch up with the technical and scientific standards of the United States. The loss of manpower was believed to affect developing countries efforts to industrialize.

CAUSES OF BRAIN DRAIN

The main causes of brain drain can be looked into as **pull** and **push** factors. The push factors are those aspects, which force people to think about leaving his normal place of abode or move from their native country to neighbouring countries or for more distant places like United Kingdom or USA. While the pull factors are the attractions those that draw people to particular destinations, which lure the immigrants to the country of destination.

This phenomenon can occur in countries where education has not been commensurate with national needs and where talents and abilities to perform have gone unrecognized or unrewarded.

It emerges when people have been terminated for professions where jobs don't exist and where advancement has more often been based on family income or social status than on professional ability.

Push factors

It can take place when people are discriminated on the basis of sex, social class, race or entrenched economic and political interest. This can be attributed to weaknesses of the school system in training people for science and mathematics based occupations and the dominance of secondary and higher education system by foreign-based curricula, which locks countries into occupational arrays not well suited to their particular needs. In some cases those who train in foreign countries could not return since they had no places to practice their professions. For example, until a few years ago, Gambia did not have a university and had to spend a significant portion of state funds to train and educate its professionals abroad. Those who became professors could not return, as they had nowhere to ply their trade. Poorly funded and resourced institutions further affect this while there are few private sector jobs.

The migrants compare those conditions between the native land and foreign countries. Personal taste and circumstances as well as costs of transactions and time affect the individual decisions as migrants. Some are after real income and professional opportunities, which were not available in their country for example the wages of civil servants in Brazil, has been very low. It has remained around \$40 to \$60 per month. If the monthly wages equals \$50, 42% of Brazilians makes up to just \$1,800 per year and only 20% make more than \$4,200 per year. These figures are not encouraging given that civil servants include schoolteachers, police force, and doctoral and health care personnel.

The political instability in the home countries may force the migrant to lose confidence with their governments and future prospects for a better life. These are individuals who may have difficulties because of their ethnic, cultural, and religious belonging or being a member of opposition grouping in their home countries. Migration takes place in response to wars and political and social turmoil.

Students from less developed countries are expected to go back and provide manpower in such areas as medicine, education, engineering and military. Most of them do not return home but are left behind. Those who sought to remain behind cite prestige of degrees obtained abroad and the good academic facilities as reasons for staying behind. Others study abroad because their countries have small but selected universities and they were not admitted because government scholarships are not available, for example, in Kenya, Uganda, Israel and Iranians.

Those students who were educated abroad do acquire international marketable skills and information concerning job opportunities abroad. This would help them to decide and search for better paying jobs than what is in their home country. The low pay and lack of moral will force them to leave their jobs and home and search for international jobs.

If the home government has an excess of professionals, a limited job hierarchy with prospects for improvement, professionals will consider permanent residence in their new countries' of destination, for example, in Spain there is a problem with promotion process in that often ten to fifteen years of service, every member of a high corps has reached the highest grade of his or her professional career. This erodes motivation and distorts the organizational chart. Consequently there can be lack of political will, where by employment procedures are full of corruption and anomalies. These can force the professionals to seek employment elsewhere, for example, in Brazil 2.3 millions civil servants were employed under the private laws. These private employees may be fired without cause and are not covered by civil service pension scheme. Thus when they retire, do not burden local government budgets.

In Bolivia the ineffective macroeconomics measures and political instability lead to hyperinflation in the mid 1985. The measures, trial were instituted, included leasing of restrains on labour force mobility that allowed people to migrate to other countries and offer their expertise. Political turmoil is linked to the failure of economic development. As pressure of poverty, rapid population growth, diseases and illiteracy and environmental degradation mounts they produce a volatile cocktail of insecurity. Resulting wars, civil strife, state sponsored terrorism, riots and other forms of political violence can lead to the displacement of large numbers of people as migrants, refugees or asylees. In the twentieth century, more wars are taking place and they are longer and causing more devastation. Both internal and regional conflicts based on religion and ethnicity is precipitating unprecedented high levels of international migration. It can be pointed that over the last 40 years nearly 20 African countries have experienced at least one period of civil war. It is estimated that 20% of Sub-Saharan population now live in countries, which are formally at war, and low intensity conflict has become endemic to many other states. Deep political and economic development failures are the root causes of African problems.

As some statistics indicate concerning the current intellectual migration, it is Africa that suffers most from this unfortunate phenomenon. In 1998 an estimated 700 Ghanaian physicians are said to have been practicing in the USA alone, which makes a considerable percentage of the population of doctors in that country. It is estimated that 20,000 Nigerian academics are now employed in USA alone and more than 300 Ethiopian physicians are working in Chicago, USA alone. According to research reports presented on an international conference concerning the issue of Brain drain, Africa generally loses over 20,000 intellectuals yearly. A new report by the British Broadcasting Corporation (BBC) says Africa has lost a third of its professionals in recent decades and it is costing the continent \$4 billion a year to replace them with expatriates from the west. Where as rich countries like the United States of America have saved a total sum of \$26 billions dollars which

otherwise should have spent to train 130,000 highly qualified physicians. The consequences are worse for poor countries like Ethiopia. This already poor and unfortunate country has been losing its meager professionals continuously since the previous regime. The country has a long history of external provocations and internal conflicts that has been driving out its limited medical doctors in particular and other professionals in general. Thousands of them have been trained in home institutions with considerable social cost and debt from the richest nations. In the past decade between 1980-1990, a total of less than 6000 students have returned from studies abroad out of nearly 23000 students who left for Europe and the United States in that same period of time. These are either tempted by significantly higher wages and better future prospects or give the blame to the political situation, which they say is a threat even for their lives. In most cases the latter is likely to be the main reason that makes Ethiopians on their way from the country. South Africa and Nigeria seem to have the biggest portion in losing their professionals from Africa, which consumes professionals from other African states on their part. This is undoubtedly one of the main constraints of underdevelopment in the continent.

Pull factors

The second factors are the pull factors. They are factors that entice a person to leave their home or cause them to be pulled towards another place. These include the following in case of brain drain.

Some of the rich powerful countries that have not yet trained enough citizens with essential skills often import talents by offering higher pay and better working conditions. Many professionals from Western Europe have moved to “countries of opportunity” particularly the United States, Canada and Australia. There are circumstances within Europe where France attracted some professionals from Latin Europe, Spain, Greece, Sweden and Norway.

There were European professionals who migrated to North America due to newer facilities, higher pay and more flexible opportunities compared to the home country. In most former colonies, professionals moved to their former colonial master countries. Those from British Commonwealth went to the United Kingdom and those from francophone countries went to France.

The booming economy and expanding universities of USA have been attracting everyone. Increasing numbers of Indians, Chinese and Koreans migrated there rather than to Europe. The USA relaxation of immigration Act in 1965 eased professional restriction, which gave entry of professionals from non-European countries. Most doctors however arrived after completing their education entirely at home. The flexible structure of organizations and the vigorous leadership of the USA, which attracted most professionals, further expanded the above scenario.

There has been demand for professionals or skilled people of certain characteristics, for example

Turkish authority's net loss of engineers with six or more years of experience jumped from six in 1977 to 54 in 1980. The number of engineers in the state Hydraulic Works Dam Design and construction similarly declined from more than one hundred to 55 in recent years and most qualified senior exploration and drilling staff of Turkish Petroleum Company left at an alarming rate in 1980 and 1981. Similar trends have been observed in Guyana's bauxite and electricity and in Egypt nationals' urban planning offices. Most of the above professionals have moved due to high remunerations and fringe benefits. This is the reason why most people have been targeting USA where certain professional are well paid compared to the home government. For example a doctor can be paid ten times the amount he can be paid in less developing countries like Kenya.

The high salaries are further accompanied by high standards of living in industrialized countries compared with adventurism. Those from Kenya are able to drive within the shortest time possible in USA compared to when they were in their mother country. The post second world war expansion of the industrial economies of western Europe and North America has lead to immigration policies in these countries designed to meet a burgeoning demand for cheap labour. Globalization has made possible a massive transfer of resources like technology and capital; labour has become another form of large-scale resource transfer. The developed countries are a magnet for the world's migrant is evident from statistics. In 1990, half of the worlds migrants were in industrial countries: 15-20 million were in western Europe, 15-20 million were in North America and 2-3 million were in industrial nations of Asia in countries such as Japan and Taiwan.

EFFECTS OF BRAIN DRAIN

Brain drain has effects to both the country of origin and that of destination. For parent country, the migration of professionals is more than a financial concern because such individuals are the elite without which a national development will suffer. Consequently, if the "human value" is used, the figures that are produced are large relative to the aid given. This factor has been used to show the problem of brain drain and to demand action on the country involved.

Secondly, when a country loses a highly skilled person through emigration there is likely to be short run adjustment cost arises from the fact that efficiency requires an optimal mix of human capital with physical capital and unskilled labour. When an engineer leaves a plant, in the extreme case, machine and labour have to remain idle until a replacement is found. This temporary loss can be eliminated if the departure of the engineer is known in advance and a replacement has been trained. The replacement of skilled person requires time consuming education.

The population of a country taxes itself to finance the operation of institutions on study of citizen abroad. This collective investment in education is made in expectations of general returns to the

society. This can lead to increase in productivity and greater tax base in order to raise more revenue to be spent on further development and welfare projects and the country as a whole.

The competitive selection of education tends to provide education on the most gifted and dynamic young people who are sources of leadership. Therefore, their migration abroad represents serious loss of leadership because the investment has lost and involves a great inequality. The projects for the provision of the very basic technology and medical services in less developed countries suffer or have to be abandoned because of lack of skilled personnel while those emigrants contribute to the unnecessary mixing of technical and medical projects in industrialized countries. For example, the current mass exodus of nurses and doctors from Ghana to Britain leaves the country in problems because most of them are trained within the country. The UN Economic Commission for Africa and the International Organization for Migration estimates that since 1990 at least 20,000 people leave the continent annually.

In cases where the education was financed by the government the emigrants then owe the government, the obligation is payable through taxes which are used to provide public pensions, medical care and welfare for the elderly. Thus those left behind face an increased tax burden to take care of the above services. Developing countries express concern that emigration deprives these nations of their best human resources, represent a transfer of educational investment from the poor to rich countries and leads to abuses or exploitation of their workers. Out migration can also pose the risk of rather serious and sometimes dramatic economic problems and the need to make sudden adaptations when migrants return unexpectedly and in large numbers.

Those students who have studied abroad may bring home techniques suited to country of study but wasteful and too technical for Home Country. Thus the home country loses its investment in its upbringing and education.

There are some positive effects, which can be attained by the home country. First to home country may benefit if it has excessive number of persons in a certain speciality. The immigration may relieve unemployment and increase the security to pay those who remained. Some professionals may remit money home and thereby the country may gain exchange. The World Bank study of labour exporting countries recorded receipt of about \$23 billion in remittance in 1978, which is equivalent to about 10% of the value of their exports of goods and service. Although professional and technical manpower constituted 4% of Pakistan emigrants to the Middle East in 1979, they earned about 17% of total migrant income and third per capital remittance averaged \$4,500 per year more than twice that of unskilled workers.

If the professionals come back, they are always, equipped with technical and managerial skills essential for development. The highly skilled people may occasionally create negative externalities

by providing the stimulus for civil unrest and revolutions, that turn out not to have been in the long-term interest of the country. The emigration of highly skilled potential revolutionaries may then have positive externalities for their home country.

On the part of migrants receiving country, the labour force contributes a lot to the development of industries. For example, in Australia, 58 % of the country's post war growth is due to the inflow of foreigners. Also, Kuwait and United Arab Emirates stand out with, respectively, 69% and 85% of the non-national in their workforce proportion which are known to have risen. These countries have manpower without having to pay the cost of the emigrants' development and education. Some of them may be unusually innovative; have notable achievement in the sciences and humanities. This may increase the cultural and national status of the country and encourage foreign infusion. But the receiving country may receive some negative publicity through internal forums.

In other cases the emigrant may not be as well trained as local professionals and may not relate well to public services in quality. If the person is a genius, ethnic and racial tension may arise.

SOLUTIONS TO BRAIN DRAIN

In order to curb brain drain for the less developed countries a number of proposals need to be implemented. First the home government needs to raise the salaries and improve the working conditions in their countries. The government should offer higher wages for insiders according to their qualifications instead of estimating and hiring expatriates, which is more costly. The government should guarantee jobs for those who might return and recruiting abroad for important public service positions for example the government of Korea successfully lured back Korean scientists trained abroad.

In cases where there was political turmoil, a change in political set up as it happened in Jamaica in 1975 and in Nigeria in 1997 may encourage migrants to return. But this is a very tricky position for any country. Good governance at the national and international level, especially maintenance of reasonable security for people's lives and property is essential for economic progress. Transparency in leadership is essential and should be maintained. For the politically distressed countries the professionals may be relocated to places where they can be productive rather than confining them in refugee camps and then return home once the situation in their countries normalizes.

The government can encourage economic incentives on selective basis. For example the government of Sri Lanka launched a programme in 1979 to encourage professionals to stay or return home by revising its pension systems, easing exchange controls so that people could finance the education of their children abroad and by facilitating re-entry of senior staff to appropriate positions in the government.

Education plays a powerful role especially in the growing problems of international migration. Therefore, offering those individuals the necessary education qualifications in their homes countries and expanding a better educational infrastructure may definitely prevent emigrants who are seeking a higher education abroad. Furthermore seeking alternative measures for return of warranty from the beneficiaries, such as the withholding of academic degrees until the graduates return and are willing to serve the people may be another considerable alternative.

Another proposal, are imposing heavy emigrating taxes and passport fess on trained manpower in order to discourage them from leaving and introducing compulsory public services employment for certain categories of personnel akin to the military service as it being tried for medical doctors in Turkey. The restrictive policies should be aimed at delaying emigration such as adding extra years to medical students' training. Various tax proposals have been put forward as government realize that the large numbers of citizens living outside their borders are a potential economic resource. For example due to economic hard ships, Zimbabwe has come up with a new proposal where graduates who received state assistance are now required to surrender a third of their salaries if they choose to work in a foreign countries on completion of their studies. The cash strapped government has set up a special cadet scheme whose stringent conditions it hopes will stem a crippling brain drain that has hit most of the countries economic sectors. The Ministry of Higher and Tertiary Education has come up with conditions and a memorandum of agreement for special cadets who access state funds to pay for their studies. Other proposals include one-time exit taxes to bilateral tax arrangement, which would require the receiving nations to tax citizens of another and remunerate the home country. Another strategy may include adoption of international agreements by industrialized and developing nations under which the wealthy countries should pledge not to recruit people from developing countries. Adopting a strategy that involves transferring skills through networks of professionals and intellectuals and the time-tested approach of repatriation can enhance this. Lastly, urban rules should be handed by the less developed countries for certain categories of temporary immigrants that require them to leave upon completion of their study or research mission.

There is a large and growing pool of African scientist living and working in the industrialized world. African countries should develop and adopt strategies to mobilize and utilize their Diaspora. The region can no longer afford to ignore this capital. Indeed it should tap the enormous scientific and technological talents of African abroad and use them for its own scientific and technological development. In conclusion, due to the impact urbanization and globalization, the less developed countries have to change their modes of education to suit the market. They also have to readjust their economics with the global trends and put policies, which can encourage their professionals to remain within the country. Those countries with political regime, which do not take care of professionals, and war ravaged countries will always face emigration and brain drain.

Activity

1. Define the word brain drain.
2. Outline and discuss four causes of Brain drain.
3. Discuss five effects of brain drain.
4. What are the possible policy solutions to brain drain.

Dependence in education

The objectives of this chapter are to:

1. Define the word Aid,
2. Discuss the types of aid available in the world
3. Discuss the criticisms that have been levelled on foreign aid on education

Definition

Aid from the French word *aide*, also known as **international aid**, **overseas aid**, or **foreign aid**, is a voluntary transfer of resources from one country to another, given at least partly with the objective of benefiting the recipient country. It may have other functions as well such as a signal of diplomatic approval, or to strengthen a military ally, to reward a government for behaviour desired by the donor, to extend the donor's cultural influence, to provide infrastructure needed by the donor for resource extraction from the recipient country, or to gain other kinds of commercial access. Carol Lancaster, in her book *Foreign Aid* (2007) defines foreign aid as a voluntary transfer of public resources, from a government to another independent government, to an NGO, or to an international organization such as the World Bank or the UN Development Program with at least a 25 percent grant element, with the aim of improving the human condition in the country receiving the aid. In addition, The Development Assistance Committee of the Organization for Economic Cooperation and Development defines aid as consisting of flows to developing countries and multilateral institutions provided by official agencies, including state and local governments,

administered with the promotion of the economic development and welfare of developing countries as its main objective, and it is concessional in character and contains a grant element of at least 25 %. In her widely acclaimed book, *DEAD AID*, Dasmibisa Moyo has identified three types of foreign aid. They are Humanitarian aid or emergency aid. This is given in response to catastrophes and calamities. Secondly Charity based aid. This is usually given by charitable organizations to institutions or people on the ground. Thirdly, Systematic aid. These are aid payments made directly to government either through government-to-government transfers. In this respect it is termed as bilateral aid. This aid may also be transferred via institutions such as the World Bank. In this respect it is termed as multilateral aid.

In this chapter we are concerned with bilateral and multilateral aid rather than the humanitarian and emergency aid. There, however two related concepts to aid that also need to be pointed out. These are loans and grants. Cash transfers from the rich countries to African countries have tended to be in form of concessional loans. This is money lent at below market interest rates. Grants on the other hand are money, which has been given for nothing in return, or interest. There has been a tendency for most countries to prefer grants to loans. The view here is that loans are expensive in comparison to grants and that they are likely to turn a country indebted. In the context of the background, Moyo defines aid as the sum total of both concessional loans and grants.

GENESIS OF AID

Aid existed in ancient times. The trend and amounts have increased tremendously during the twentieth century especially after the Second World War occasionally consisting of humanitarian crisis relief. It was modeled on the Marshall plan which had been successfully used in the reconstruction of Europe after the war. Especially in the 1960s following independence of most countries of Africa, aid was seen as the only way to trigger higher investments which would in turn lead to higher economic growth. Soon, however, western powers began to put conditionality aid. Donors imposed rules and regulations to govern conditions under which aid is disbursed. The focus of aid in Africa has therefore been characterized by the shifting needs of the donors. Some transfers that would now be counted as aid, however, came under the purview of colonial office budgets. It was at the end of World War Two, in the contexts of European reconstruction, decolonisation, and cold war rivalry for influence in the third world, that aid became the major activity that it is today. Countries receiving the aid may free some of the resources that were intended for a particular purpose to help in improving another area. A government may receive food aid so that the money they could have used in purchasing food could be used for military improvement. This may not be articulated when the aid is being released but is a hidden aspect. The following phases trace the shifting focus of aid in Africa through the years. To start with, soon after independence both France and Britain used aid as a tool of holding their former colonies in Africa. This was followed by the United States of America using aid as a tool of fighting the cold war

In the early most aid was given to build infrastructure especially roads and railways. In the 1970s the focus shifted to eliminating poverty. The emphasis now changed from infrastructure to

agriculture and rural development. In the 1980s, the structural adjustment policies became the major focus. African countries were required to embrace free market economy by removing price controls and monopolies. In the 1990s to date the emphasis has shifted to good governance. This is seen as the key to economic growth.

Sources and distribution

Bilateral Aid is given by the government of one country directly to another. Many dedicated governmental aid agencies dispense bilateral aid, for example DANIDA and USAID as governmental aid agencies do give aid to recipient country. **Multilateral aid** is given from the government of a country to an international agency, such as the World Bank, the International Monetary Fund or the European Development Fund. The contributing countries usually govern these organizations that involve the wealthiest countries in the world. The organizations are used by the donor countries to further their course by instituting stringent measures that ensure that their interest are catered. This has brought criticism by the third world countries that feel that the developed countries have brought a new form of oppression.

Donations from private individuals and for-profit companies are another significant type of aid. The practice of giving such donations, especially on the part of wealthy individuals, is known as philanthropy. This is done through foundations started by the multinational companies and they provide aid in particular areas of their interest.

Non Governmental Organisations play a major role in distributing aid. They include include Action Aid, Oxfam and the Mercy corps. Many non-profit charitable organizations solicit donations from the public to support their work; charitable foundations often oversee an endowment which they invest and use the proceeds to support aid organizations and other causes. Aid organizations may provide both humanitarian and development aid, or specialize in one or the other. A number of aid NGOs has an affiliation with a religious denomination. They conduct their own international operations - distributing food and water, building pipelines and homes, teaching, providing health care, lending money, etc. Some government aid agencies also conduct direct operations, but there are also many contracts with or grants to NGOs who actually provide the desired aid.

Scholarships to foreign students, whether from a government or a private school or university, might also be considered a type of development aid.

Types of AID

Aid is often *pledged* at one point in time, but *disbursements* (financial transfers) might not arrive until later. Aid may be provided in the form of financial grants or loans, or in the form of materials, labor, or expertise.

Humanitarian aid

Humanitarian aid or *emergency aid* involves rapid assistance given to people in immediate distress by individuals, organizations, or governments to relieve suffering, during and after man-made emergencies like war and natural disasters like famine, floods, earthquakes. It focuses on relieving suffering caused by natural disaster or conflict, rather than removing the root causes of poverty or vulnerability. The provision of humanitarian response consists of the provision of vital services such as providing food, water and medicine by aid agencies, and the provision of funding or in-kind services like logistics or transport, usually through aid agencies or the government of the affected country. State-supported actors distinguish humanitarian aid from humanitarian intervention that involves armed forces protecting civilians from violent oppression or genocide.

Development aid

Development aid is given by industrialized countries to support development in general, which can be economic development or social development in third world countries. It is aimed at alleviating poverty in the long term, rather than alleviating suffering in the short term.

Development aid is often used to refer specifically to Official Development Assistance (ODA), which is aid given by governments on certain concessional terms, usually as simple donations. It is given by governments through individual countries' International Aid agencies and through multilateral institutions such as the World Bank and by individuals through development charities such as Action aid; Caritas, Care International or Oxfam. The offer to give development aid has to be understood in the context of the Cold war.

Other Specific types of aid include:

- Project aid: Aid is given for a specific purpose e.g. building materials for a new school.
- Programme aid: Aid is given for a specific sector e.g. funding of the education sector of a country.
- Budget support: A form of Programme Aid that is directly channelled into the financial system of the recipient country.
- Sector wide Approaches (Tied): A combination of Project aid and Programme aid/Budget Support e.g. support for the education sector in a country will include both funding of education projects (like school buildings) and provide funds to maintain them (like school books).
- Food aid is given to countries in urgent need of food supplies, especially if they have just experienced a natural disaster like famine, floods, and earthquakes.
- Untied Aid: The country receiving the aid can spend the money as they chose.
- The Tied aid must be used to purchase products from the country that donated it or a specified group of countries.

- Educated personnel, such as doctors, provide technical assistance. They are moved into developing countries to assist with programs of development. They can be both programme and project aid.

Educational aid

Much of the aid provided by the international agencies and bilateral donors to help in education do not benefit the recipient country but a substantial proportion returns to the donor country through payments to expatriate staff and consultants. Students pay part of the money as fees to the donor country educational institutions from the recipient countries and contracts for educational materials and other educational inputs that go to firms in the donor countries. The main sources of educational aid are the world bank, bilateral government to government agencies such as the overseas development Administration in the UK in Britain and Non Governmental Organization.

The UN agencies such as UNESCO perform mainly advisory and research roles and provide technical assistance to national education systems. The World Bank is the largest single donor to education accounting for 15 percent of the total international support to education. The politics of aid have led to long experience of foreign intervention and use of aid as political weapon that has led to suspicion of the motives held by the donors. A skeptical view of aid is most common among those opposing repressive regimes that have long watched aid and trade bolstering the power and credibility of these regimes. In South Africa assistance to education programmes, which would assist individual mobility, has been regarded with suspicion by the more radical sections of the liberation movements. They regard these programmes as attempts to buy off an educated class of black people and in the long run divide the black community. Similar suspicions are held in Guatemala, El Salvador and Honduras where there is a long history of the US aid geared to combating communism rather than promoting social justice. The objectives of the aid given carry contradictory meaning that can be interpreted in various ways. This indicates a hidden motive by the donor without explicitly clarifying what they are interested when giving a particular aid.

Future priorities for aid in education

Graham-trial (1991) has articulated the following as the areas that future donors should emphasize on in the provision of aid:

Aid to education need to be increased. This was supported by the World conference on Education for All that suggested that additional aid should be provided in order to ensure minimal education for all school age children by the year 2000.

Increased aid to education should not be at the expense of other social and environmental needs. This is because education can only flourish when it take place in a healthy environment in the

broadest sense. The increase can be at the expense of military assistance to recipients, wasteful 'white elephants' and prestige projects that bring no benefits to the majority of the recipient country population. The donors should maintain aid flows at least at the UN target of 0.7% of the GNP.

For effective utilization of Aid, individual countries should be left to come up with national plans for the future of their education. This is certainly better and more flexible than the global strategy to be imposed on all. Conditionality that limits policy options available to recipient should be lifted.

Basic education for all (access to schools and continuing education opportunities, including literacy for adults and out of school children) should be a key goal for national governments and the international community. Their implementations need to be sensitive to the social, economic and political context. Equity cannot be achieved in basic education unless it is integrated into the broader context of social and economic reforms particularly land reforms and access to basic services such as housing, clean water, basic health care facilities and a living wage in employment or self employment. Lastly, funding whether from national or international sources need to be long-term in order to cater for the poor and the vulnerable groups.

Criticism of aid

Foreign aid has many critics. The criticism is based on the following: Despite receiving a lot of foreign aid, African countries have not made any significant economic growth and poverty eradication. The conclusion here is that aid is not working. Some critics also argue that aid undermines development and inherently does more harm than good. There are those on the other hand who argue that aid must be seriously reformed if it has to work properly. There are those who argue that Aid is seldom given from motives of pure altruism, for instance it is often given as a means of supporting an ally in international politics. It may also be given with the intention of influencing the political process in the receiving nation. Whether one considers such aid helpful may depend on whether one agrees with the agenda being pursued by the donor nation in a particular case. During the conflict between communism and capitalism in the twentieth century, the champions of those ideologies, the Soviet Union and the United States, each used aid to influence the internal politics of other nations, and to support their weaker allies. Perhaps the most notable example was the Marshall plan by which the United States, largely successfully, sought to pull European nations towards capitalism and away from communism. Aid to underdeveloped countries has sometimes been criticized as being more in the interest of the donor than the recipient, or even a form of neocolonialism.

A donor may have various motives for giving aid. They may involve defense support, market expansion, foreign investment, missionary enterprise, and cultural extension. In recent decades, aid by organizations such as the International Monetary fund and the World Bank has been criticized as being primarily a tool used to open new areas up to global capitalists markets, and being only secondarily concerned with the well being of the people in the recipient countries.

Besides criticism of motive, aid may be criticized simply on the grounds that it is not effective. It does not do what it was intended to do or help the people that are intended to help. This is essentially an *economic* criticism of aid. The two types of criticism are not entirely separate: critics of the ideology behind a piece of aid are likely to see it as ineffective; and indeed, ineffectiveness must imply some flaws in the ideology. Statistical studies have produced widely differing assessments of the correlation between aid and economic growth, and no firm consensus has emerged to suggest that foreign aid generally does boost growth. Some studies find a positive correlation, but others find either no correlation or a negative correlation. In the case of Africa, Asante (1985) gives the following assessment:

The economist Easterly William and others have argued that aid can often distort incentives in poor countries in various harmful ways. Aid can also involve inflows of money to poor countries that have some similarities to inflows of money from natural resources that provoke the resource curse.

The U.S. Aid in particular is known for the policy conditionalities that often accompany it. Emergency funds from the International Monetary Fund (IMF) and World Bank, for instance, are linked to a wide range of free-market policy prescriptions that some argue interfere in a country's sovereignty. Policy prescriptions from outsiders can do more harm, as they might not fit the local environment. The IMF can be good at helping countries over a short problematic financial period, but for poor countries with long lasting issues it can cause harm. In his book *The White Man's Burden*, Easterly argued that if the IMF only gave adjustment loans to countries that can repay it, instead of forgiving debts or lending repetitively even if conditions are not met, it would maintain its credibility.

In addition to the above criticisms, the logistics in which aid delivery occurs can be problematic. For example an earthquake in 2003 in Bam, Iran left tens of thousands of people in need of disaster zone aid. Although aid was flown in rapidly, regional belief systems, cultural backgrounds and even language seemed to have been omitted as a source of concern. Items such as religiously prohibited pork, and non-generic forms of medicine that lacked multilingual instructions came flooding in as relief. An implementation of aid can easily be problematic, causing more problems than it solves.

James Shikwati, a Kenyan economist, has argued that foreign aid causes harm to the recipient nations, specifically because aid is distributed by local politicians, finances the creation of corrupt government such as that led by Christopher Dempsey in Zambia bureaucracies, and hollows out the local economy. In an interview in Germany's *Der Spiegel* magazine, Shikwati uses the example of food aid delivered to Kenya in the form of a shipment of corn from America. Portions of the corn may be diverted by corrupt politicians to their own tribes, or sold on the black market at prices that undercut local food producers. Similarly, Kenyan recipients of donated Western clothing will not buy clothing from local tailors, putting the tailors out of business. In an episode of 20/20, John

Stossel demonstrated the existence of secret government bank accounts, which concealed foreign aid money, destined for private purposes.

Some believe that aid is offset by other economic programs such as agricultural subsidies. Mark Malloch Brown former head of the United Nations Development Program, estimated that farm subsidies cost poor countries about USD\$50 billion a year in lost agricultural exports:

"It is the extraordinary distortion of global trade, where the West spends \$ 360 billion a year on protecting its agriculture with a network of subsidies and tariffs that costs developing countries about US\$ 50 billion in potential lost agricultural exports. Fifty billion dollars is the equivalent of today's level of development assistance."

Some have argued that the major international aid organizations have formed an aid cartel.

In response to aid critics, a movement to reform U.S. foreign aid has started to gain momentum. In the United States, leaders of this movement include the Center for Global Development, Trial America, the Brookings Institution, InterAction, and Bread for the World. The various organizations have united to call for a new Foreign Assistance Act, a national development strategy, and a new cabinet-level department for development.

As a solution to the problems of aid, several suggestions have been made. One of the most radical solution is given by Moyo who suggested that African countries should gradually be weaned off aid and rid off dependency. Instead she proposes as alternative development of trade, development of capital markets, micro finance and savings (p.145). Another solution given is that of introducing a funding mechanism that hinges on results. At the core is a contract between funders and recipients that stipulate a fixed payment for each unit of confirmed progress towards an agreed upon goal. This approach is known as cash on delivery. It has been used to assist developing countries to achieve universal elementary education. As it has been observed in regard to Kenyan situation this new approach has not completely eliminated the problem of corruption and diversion of funds from the intended project.

Activity

1. Name four types of aid
2. Discuss the genesis of Aid
3. Discuss the advantages and disadvantages of using Aid in education.

Effective Teacher Education in Developing Nations This chapter is interested in achieving the following objectives:

1. Discuss the aspects of a good teacher
2. Outline the areas that effective teachers need to be trained
- . 3. Provide the ideal situation of teacher training.

Globally, the key role played by the teacher in education cannot be underestimated however, there is little in regard to policy, or in the implementation of effective teacher training programmes and placement. Teacher training models are largely generated by policy decisions made in respect to selection, training, certification and whether the national system places emphasis on quality or quantity of teacher to be produced. (Tambo:1995)

Special Needs Education (SNE) teacher training programmes have received even far less attention than regular teacher training programmes. This is even despite the knowledge that working with children with special education needs (SEN) is very challenging and demanding, and the teacher has to be adequately prepared to handle such children. With the global trend in the education of SEN children and integration, there is an even greater need to train all teachers in SNE so as to handle all children in their classrooms. This would be the ideal situation but what is the state of affairs?

In Cameroon there is only one SNE teacher training institution, the Special Education Needs Teacher Training Institution, located in Bamenda, in the North West Province. This institution was opened in February 2007, a very recent venture. It aims at providing education to teacher trainees, improve their understanding of SEN children, and in so doing, “provide opportunities for a differently abled children” (SENTTI:2007). This center however, lacks most of the basic facilities such as finances and teachers and relies heavily on the goodwill of volunteer teachers from the British Volunteer Service Overseas Organization. It also has to develop its own teacher training curriculum since it is almost pioneering in an area that has not received any prior attention.

In Cameroon the general state of education is appalling. Elementary and Secondary education is plagued with serious quality teaching and quantity learning problems. This is because of the high levels of poverty where neither the parents nor the government can afford to provide enough learning resources. There is also a high rate of unemployment of school products, hence parental

apathy to spend the scarce finances on education without immediate returns. In addition to this, the lack of resources affects quality in teaching in that textbooks are few, unavailable and often uncontextualized as most of them are foreign, and not suitable to the Cameroonian situation. Hence, many leave school without having mastered the basic literacy and social skills. This in return has an impact on the quality of teachers as many of them lack communication skills, professional skills social skills and study and reading skills since they had not acquired them in school and can therefore not pass them to their pupils, a cyclic process of under- education.

These problems emanating from the high poverty rates further compound the problems for SNE which requires a lot more modified and specialized instructional material and learning resources, adapted infrastructure and highly trained personnel. Consequently the state of SNE is abysmal, riddled with both the wide-ranging problems affecting education generally and others specific to SNE, with most staff in these schools is not being qualified to teach students with SENs, high rate of staff turnover due to irregular salaries, and very crowded classrooms. The government does not fund special needs schools and they have to rely on tuition fees paid by parents to cover their operating costs. But, as in many developing countries, most parents do not pay fees for children with disabilities as they do not see the value of spending their meager resources where they are unlikely to reap immediate benefits. It is only as recent, as 2006 that the government made proposal to make plans to pilot funding programmes for one special needs school in each of the 10 provinces.

EFFECTIVE TEACHER

□From the fore going an effective teacher should share responsibility. They should not be overly possessive or need complete control of the children and environment. They should allow students both responsibility and freedom within the classroom community. Both the teacher and the students need to contribute to the learning environment for a relationship of closeness and acceptance to develop.

□Secondly the teachers need to have the attitude of sensitivity to diversity. This attitude deals with empathy and the importance of understanding the students. The teachers should be sensitive, accept and encourage students when dealing with issues associated with diversity of the children. An effective teacher understands their students without analyzing or judging. Teachers have the ability to make each child feel special by verbally sharing individual compliments in front of the class. This was further supported by Zeichner (1993) who identified sixteen key elements of effective teacher education for diversity. Among them were:-Instruction by an effective teacher are

embedded in a group setting provides both intellectual challenge and social support; The teacher education curriculum should give much attention to social cultural research knowledge about the relationship among languages, culture and learning; Teacher education curriculum should address the histories and contribution of various ethno cultural groups. Teacher training programmes need to provide teachers candidates with knowledge and experiences with diversity, including cultural diversity. They need to take the initiative to fully understand the meaning and future implication of effectively working in culturally heterogeneous classroom.

□The teacher should foster individualized instruction. They should be embedded in a constructivist trial where the teacher believes that every child can and will learn. They should stress on individual strengths and talents held by the students by encouraging positive self- confidence and self-esteem. The teacher should stimulate the student creativity by listening to their ideas and suggestions for the lessons and activities. The effective teachers are open to students' ways of being imaginative and also utilize many approaches to learning. They need to motivate and design lessons that consider students' interest, skills and needs. They need to capitalize on student intrinsic motivation, cognitive learning styles and skill levels.

□An effective teacher should be equipped with Information and communication technology (ICT) skills. The new ICT offers powerful trial that demand new skills and understanding of the students. They provide new ways of engaging the students especially when power point and interactive white boards are used in capturing the attention of students in the classroom. An effective teacher is expected to learn and be able to use ICT in their teaching process by employing technologies in combination rather than as a sole delivery mechanism. They can use radio, print, recorded audio and video, broadcast radio and television and audio conferencing technologies. Comparatively technologies have been used in combination in the Open University in the United Kingdom established in 1969 and in Indira Gandhi National Open University in India. In developing countries there is a huge shortage of books and ICT can be used to solve the problem of text books by accessing teaching materials.

ICT AND EDUCATION IN AFRICA

ICT and Learning

Information Communication Technology, ICT, refers to technologies arising from scientific and technological process in computer science, electronics and telecommunications. It enables the

processing of information storing retrieving and dissemination of valuable information in text, sound, and video form (Toure et.al:2008). Knowledge in ICT and its use is of growing importance in the modern world for conformity, development and sustainability hence the need for ICT education. Knowledge in ICT should enhance both the learning and delivery process.

Computer technology should act as a tool to assist learning, rather than as an end in itself. It should therefore be used as both a resource tool as well as a pedagogical tool (Ferreira: 2001). As a resource tool, computer technology can be used for word processing and email, internet research and for a source as information, for teachers, trainers, researchers and students in various fields of education.

As a pedagogical tool, computer technology can be used to enhance distance learning as many learners may be geographically or even financially far from the source of education. Here it trial a flexible approach or channel of education delivery, to meet student needs. This would be the ideal but what is the real state of affairs?

In Kenya, Mozambique and Uganda the integration of ICT into the school curriculum has been painfully slow. This is due to the various challenges affecting its full integration. These range from the general society to the different government, their commitment and ability to give this education. To the general society, the internet has been seen as the trial source of pornographic material as well as a tool to abet internet crime. This reason there is general apathy from parents to support computer education and also from the school administration that have to put extra effort to monitor the student use of the net and restrict access to such cites.

These governments have also not come up with clear guidelines on how to integrate ICT into curriculum. This is especially so since ICT has taken as a subject among many others and not as a channel of education delivery or as source tool for information acquisition and transmission. For this reason, they have not seen the need to invest so heavily both financially and in planning to develop a single subject and one which is not universally taught.

In Cameroon for instance, the first ICT initiative in primary schools came through private and individual effort since 1998-1999. Even education law 9/004 of April 1998 has no mention of ICT in the school system, and neither did it mention come up in any of the education improvement meetings until in 2001 when the president mentioned the need to equip the youth with ICT skills in a speech to them in February 2001. Following this speech, ICT was introduced in the secondary general school system in 2002. The following year, official programmes for ICT designed for secondary schools were drawn. The ministry of education in Cameroon has since developed a strategy for the implementation of the National ICT policy in basic education for the period 2007-2015. This national ICT policy outlines the training of ICT teachers, school directors and the programme for integrating ICT into the national curriculum.

This policy also provides guidelines for teaching ICT in pre-school and in primary schools and provides six different modules adopted to each level from discovery and presentation skills application of skills, knowledge construction and finally to learning health and safety issues related to the use of ICT.

It also provides teacher modules which include productivity and research, application of ICT to teaching and learning, evaluation and social, moral, and human questions related to ethics and equality hence in Cameroon, there is an effort to move from the traditional pedagogical and administrative culture, and from teacher-centered teaching approach to pupil-centered where the pupils assume more responsibility in their learning through research, and the application of problem solving techniques in ICT.

Why should we integrate ICT in education?

- To meet/match global trends. The world has become increasingly interconnected, as a result of the application of technologies to all sectors of development. Hence there is need to reconceptualise and restructure education so as to confront the technical challenges of this millennium (Trial:2008)
- To respond to present and future needs of people functioning in an intensely changing and challenging intellectual environment

- To educate by giving an appreciation of the scope and purpose of education for development and for a sustainable future
- To relate sustainable development to the school curriculum
- To gain skills using a wide range of interactive and learner centered teaching and learning strategies
- As an extra, rich and varied source of information for knowledge and comparison. It provides information and enriches critical thinking about emerging concepts of a sustainable development and future.
- As an additional and alternative source of professional development
- To enrich content and provide information in non –print modes thus varying teaching modes and developing experimental learner –centered learning strategies that encourage learners to:
 - Analyze and interpret information in various forms such as texts, tables, diagrams and linked web site
 - apply ideas they develop to their own curriculum and teaching and learning contexts and practices
 - Use navigational tools which facilitate choice of content-focus and sequence of their learning activities by providing multiple access points to information as well as multiple sources of information.
- To trial from didactic “instructionism” to constructivism
- Use of ICT reduces class size as well as mitigate on staffing problems
- To match the rapid changes and expansion society faces in the way people acquire knowledge. Thus new teaching paradigms are acquired. those that tune educational systems to modern times and ensure quality training for large number of persons

Challenges in integrating ICT into education

- Delay in accessing equipment – power, cables, computers and software
- poor quality of second hand equipment most of which cannot run word processing applications • lack of technical support and sufficient expertise in ICT based education.
- lack of software for particular disciplines
- fragile telecommunication infrastructure –theft of cables and down time thus making inter connection unreliable
- corruption
- obsolete computers, hence problems in acquiring spare parts for maintenance
- Inappropriate curriculum- there has been little change in the curriculum to make ICT integrations meaningful. There is little fit between the use of computers and the national curriculum and examination system.
- lack of policy guidelines in the integration of computers in education
- Little or no ICT education in most teacher training institutions thus majority of the teachers are computer illiterate.
- Inability of teachers to adopt new roles and pedagogical practices and most of it using computer to support the traditional teaching methods.

HIGHER EDUCATION IN AFRICA

By the end of this chapter the learner should be able to:

1. Define the word higher education
2. Discuss the development of higher education in Africa
3. Highlight five solutions of the challenges facing higher education in Africa.

Definition of higher education

The term higher education has many definitions in scholarly and policy documents. The definition may vary from country to country. At times, in history you may find the definition has varied depending on the level of educational development of a particular country. In Kenya currently the term higher education encompasses all courses of study that lead to the award of an advanced diploma, first or higher level degree. It simply means an education given beyond primary and secondary school. It can also be used to refer to a wide variety of non-university and university post secondary institutions, which act as avenues for advanced skills and knowledge development. These include universities, colleges, institutes and higher vocational and professional institutions.

Situation in Africa

University education or higher education in Africa is relatively new. Attempts to develop higher education institutions in both English and French speaking countries of Africa started after the Second World War. These institutions were deliberately modelled on the universities in France and England. Indeed they were to emulate the universities of former colonial powers and hence were closely linked to the mother institutions in Europe which were responsible for final discussions on curricula and content. In the British colonies, the university colleges entered in special relation with university of London under the supervision of the inter-University Council for higher education in the colonies. In the French colonies, universities were established under a decree of the French Ministry of National Education creating French universities overseas. the decrees specified that the universities were to be governed by the statutes which governed other universities of France. In a nut shell it may be observed that colonial higher education institutions were established to promote cultural superiority of the colonial powers in Africa.

At independence universities were among other roles expected to produce highly skilled manpower so as to transform socially and economically the new nations. Though university education has developed significantly since independence, there are notable shortcomings. Universities have been rather slow in breaking away from dependence from the curricula of their former colonial masters. Consequently the relevance of some degree programmes is doubtful and has increasingly drawn criticism. Universities have failed to adapt to a large extent to the African environment. In their development universities in Africa face several challenges.

Challenges facing higher education in Africa

The enrolment rates in higher education in sub-Saharan Africa are by far the lowest in the world. Enrolments growth rates have been slow and the absolute gap by which it lags behind other regions has increased rapidly. More over the gender disparity has traditionally been wide and remain so. Notwithstanding increased awareness of the potential and necessity of women to be mainstreamed into the development process, their access to higher education has increased marginally since the 1980s. Imbalances in gender representation are even worse within the academic and administrative staff of African universities. Their participation ranges from 4 % to 7 % at universities in Burkina faso, Chad, Ethiopia, Guinea, Rwanda, Tanzania and Uganda to 26 % in Madagascar and Mozambique. Moreover equity issues are prevalent where higher education is a preserve of the rich while the poor are unable to access due to the exorbitant fees that is required both in private and public universities.

There is an acute shortage of unemployment in most African countries. This can be attributed to weak links between the industry and the universities. This is further compounded by weak curriculum that stresses theory rather than the skills competencies leading to, massive graduates' unemployment. This is due to the mismatch between educational programmes those tertiary institutions offers and the needs of the labour market and the prevailing trade and investment strategies. For example Mozambique reports few places for student and poor quality of the courses. The high cost of tertiary education, means that many potential candidates cannot attend. As a result less than three percent of the nationals public administration staff has received higher education.

Poverty has affected higher education in various ways. Malawi reports difficulties with inadequate boarding facilities, while Mauritania has problems stemming from overcrowding in Campuses. In South Africa lack of funding is a major problem and state sponsored financial assistance to students has gone on decreasing. Eligible but financially needy students continue to be excluded from South Africa higher education. More than 16000 students failed to access government funds in 2009. The scheme that has assisted more than one million students since 2000 has been allocated approximately R.3.3 billion for the 2010 academic year. The main issue is whether the universities will be able to allocate a larger pool of funding. The figures of the students in South Africa denied access to financial aid had risen by 45 percent from 11,120 in 2008 to 16,172 in 2009.

In Kenya lack of funds has affected the admission of new students. The new proposal by the government of reducing funding to the universities is expected to worsen the situation if implemented. There has been an increase in the number of students enrolled in public universities to 143,000 in 2010 from 101,000 in 2009. The government has been unable to bankroll universities to the required levels because of the widening budget deficit that has hit US \$2 billion in 2010. The below target in government revenue in a challenging economic environment has made the matter

worse. Since Kenyan public universities rely on state funding, failure to keep up with the enrolment growth would undermine the expansion plans.

In Zimbabwe the exorbitant fees charged students has forced many to drop out of higher education. Due to inflation of the local currency, students are forced to pay fees pegged on US dollars, South African Rand and the Botswana Pulas. Many students are struggling to raise foreign currency that was adopted as the legal tenders to replace Zimbabwe dollar when it was rendered unusable by ravaging inflation. The foreign aid that used to support higher education was stopped as a means of sanctioning the Mugambes' government that was accused of human rights violation.

In some countries prevailing laws/ legislation often hamper efforts to increase higher education enrolments and improve teaching quality. In some countries highly centralized policy making on Higher Education restricts the autonomy of universities and politicise them. Policy centralization makes it difficult for universities to be responsive to changes in knowledge, labour market and economic development. In other countries, lack of centralization and system oversight allow mushrooming of private universities that provide low quality education at high cost. In comparative perspective Tanzania, Cameroon and Madagascar are examples of countries where government supervise many aspects of university operations. In Benin and Tanzania the government appoints senior university managers. The Ministry of education in Madagascar appoints all faculty members, set salaries and determines working conditions, which results in close links between the faculty members and political system. In other countries such as Angola Guinea and Liberia the public institutions are allowed legal autonomy and even encouraged the establishment of private institutions. For example Kenya has laid down steps in the registration of private university to recognition and accreditation. In South Africa, all private providers are required to register their institutions and apply for accreditation for their programmes with the South Africa Qualification Authority. Zimbabwe has clearly set out the conditions for the establishment of private universities. There are instances where a good number of private institutions are not registered and recognised yet they operate and attract students. For example in Cameroon many private institutions of higher learning operate and are not authorised to do so, as they do not meet the requirements regarding infrastructure, equipments and staffing stipulated by the government. There are many similar cases in other countries. This scenario can be blamed on inadequacies in the legal provision for the establishment of private universities. Furthermore the employment markets recognises training provided and certificates issued by these institutions.

As far as quality is concerned, inadequate mastery of education programmes, the application of rigid teaching practices, lack of teaching materials and insufficient teaching time are some of the factors hindering achievements of objectives of quality education. Among the reasons that could explain the inadequate learning outcomes in the region are the shortages of teachers, resulting in overcrowded classes with pupils teacher ratio that can be as high as 70:1 or even 100:1. Lecture

halls are overcrowded, while laboratories and library facilities are insufficient and the living conditions are precarious. There is rapid expansion of enrolment in Higher education institutions and in most cases has led to decline in quality since it was not matched with commensurate increase in funding. In addition some of the private higher education institutions being established are profit oriented with little regard for quality. In a dozen of countries government response has been to establish quality assurance agencies. Due to lack of requisite capacity and financial resources to do the work, they have too often been reduced to agencies for the licensing of higher private institutions. Well over half of the African countries have yet to establish any mechanism for quality assurance. There is poor preparation of students at lower levels, leading to low internal and external efficiencies at the higher education levels. This further impact on the insufficient development of the country, poverty reduction and lack of improvement of other levels of the education system. The output of academic research in Africa also remained weak. For example in 1995 the region was responsible for just 5,839 published academic papers. The use of ICT continues to be relatively low. Academically the higher education institutions are unable to cope with the new changes that are global and technological. More over the individual scholars are not ready to embrace new ICT skills required in their teaching. This is further compounded by inadequate training and research conditions and low scholarly incentives; there is a strong temptation for many among the brightest students and teaching staff to seek better living conditions in other countries or regions. Approximately 30 % of the African university trained professionals leave the continent for greener pastures. Recent estimates suggest that up to 50,000 Africa trained PhDs are working outside Africa. The problem is especially acute among medical professionals. There is the challenge of rising demand and access and the struggle to raise and maintain quality and relevance. This can be attributed to slow response to change, inadequate financial resources to expand facilities that affect access.

HIV/AIDS is manifesting itself in lowering of the quality as a result of the deterioration of educational provision and of education systems, the psychological conditions faced by both teachers and students and declining capacity for planning and management. For example in 2004 over 40% of teachers in Zambia were HIV positive. This is clear illustration of the magnitude of the problem that the education sector has to contend with.

Brain drain has affected most of the sub Saharan Africa where most of the skilled labour force immigrates to the developed countries. The percentage of higher education educated migrants in the region increased from 23% in 1990 to 31.4% in 2000. Most of the emigrants are attracted abroad by the quality and status attached to Higher education institutions in those countries.

After completing their studies very few return home to apply their new skills.

Higher education has become more competitive especially given the increasing private sector participation, increasing demand for accountability, limited public funding for higher education, and the advent of borderless tertiary education. Competition in the developed world is forcing some institutions to seek new, easy to access markets in developing countries. Some have established their satellite campuses, or are partnering with local institutions in developing countries to offer

their degree programs in areas that have ready markets, e.g., business management and information technology. In view of the perceived greater recognition and marketability of foreign degrees, and the certainty of completing the degree within a prescribed period of time without the fear of interruption due to student crises, these 'name brand degrees' are becoming increasingly popular, posing a rising challenge for local universities in some countries.

Suggested Solution

Except in very few trial, the Government largely funds public Higher education. As a result, Ministries responsible for Higher Education exercise control over how the funds are being applied. If universities are to thrive in this rapidly changing global environment, they need to be able to respond quickly to change and to be accountable for their actions. Thus, while public funding remains important and necessary, the need for further changes in the way tertiary institutions are governed and managed is becoming increasingly clear. How this will be done must be determined by each country itself, taking into account local circumstances. This means, however, that the funding regime has to change as well. One possible way is to use block funding and give the institutions the freedom to decide on how to apply the funds, while holding them accountable for their decisions. But for this to happen, higher education institutions must convince their governments and society that they provide good educational value for money. They need to demonstrate accountability for their actions, to work constantly towards higher internal efficiency, and to market themselves actively within the nation and beyond. Professional management and effective quality assurance and accreditation systems is key to achieving this. But as stated above, the capacity to carry out quality assurance is weak. We need to reflect on how to strengthen quality assurance capacity in a cost-effective manner.

In the current world there is a shorter Knowledge Life Cycles. Knowledge doubles every 3-5 years depending on the discipline. Recently, some predictions suggest that by 2020, it will double every 75 days or so. To keep pace with such an extraordinary rate of development, a graduate will require continuous learning in order to maintain professional proficiency. In other words, a knowledgebased worker will find it necessary to earn the equivalent of several degrees in his/her lifetime through self-learning. Thus, graduates will need to keep tending their stock of knowledge and updating their skills and competencies so that their knowledge and skills can remain relevant and competitive. A new type of university that caters for this clientele is emerging.

Other solutions involve the development of Domestic graduate education programs as the solution for training future academic staff to the PhD level. At least for an initial period, this may require

strong partnerships with other universities (both in the south and the north) as capacity for local research and supervision is likely to be limited. There is need to create favourable climate for staff retention by addressing the concerns, changing the approach to staff training, and allowing staff to use their skills in a transparent and managed manner to supplement their income. There is need to work together in global partnerships and regional cooperation by maintaining strategic partnerships and advance competitive positions. The small size of African economies cannot support the creation of a sufficient number of world-class tertiary institutions to meet the demand in each country. Regional collaboration helps to achieve economies of scale, especially for capital intensive and highly specialized disciplines in the sciences, engineering and medicine. In addition, maintaining adequate levels of educational quality and relevance requires active and sustainable access to global knowledge through professional interchanges, library resources, or joint research opportunities. Strong partnerships with other tertiary institutions around the world, when supported by modern information and communications technologies, make this increasingly possible.

The government of Botswana has embarked on a major policy decision taken within the health sector that has assisted in cushioning the impact of the HIV/AIDS pandemic in the provision of free Anti-Retroviral Therapy to all citizens. This has assisted in curtailing the problem of teacher absenteeism and teacher mortality associated with the AIDS problem. Tackling teacher absenteeism and mortality is a crucial strategy in the quest to attain quality in education; there is a need to ensure that qualified teachers are retained. The provision of free Anti-Retroviral Therapy has helped Botswana to preserve its teaching force in all sectors of her education system. The huge financial investment that Botswana has put in the provision of Anti-Retroviral Therapy has assisted in saving lives and sustaining the critical workforce needed to support the economy. Other policy issues involve infusion/integration of HIV/AIDS education into the curriculum. This has been made mandatory for all education levels, primary to tertiary. The infusion of issues dealing with sexual reproductive health into the curriculum represents a major innovation in the education system, given that the discussion of such issues has always been a taboo in African culture. Further the policy has prescribed the incorporation of guidance and counseling into the teacher training programmes and discouraged discrimination against those children and teachers infected or affected by the disease; they are to be allowed to stay in the school regardless of their status. The experience of Botswana can provide a good lesson for other countries in Sub-Saharan Africa where the teaching population continues to be decimated by AIDS. It is equally true that not many countries in Sub-Saharan Africa can afford to provide free Anti-Retroviral Therapy to their citizens.